Topic-122: Introduction to Assessing Reading

There are several reasons for assessing reading and the skills and knowledge that are invo reading. They include assessing to encourage learning, assessing to monitor progress and provide fe assessing to diagnose problems, and assessing to measure proficiency. The same form of assessme be used for a variety of goals. Table 6.1 lists these reasons and their applications, and they are expande the rest of the chapter.

Good assessment needs to be reliable, valid and practical. Reliability is helped by having number of points of measurement, by using a test format that the learners are familiar with, and by consistent delivery and marking procedures. Validity is helped by using reliable measures, and by beln about what is being measured and why. The practicality of a test can be helped by giving very careful t to how the learners will answer the test and how it will be marked. The ease of making a test is also pa practicality.

Topic-123: Motivation as an Informal Assessment

A very common use of informal assessment is to make learners study. At the worst they study be there will be a test, but preferably success in the test maintains their interest in study. Regular compreh tests can do this, but there are other ways as well which do not involve formal testing.

Table 6.1: Goals, Purposes and Means of reading assessment

Goals of assessment	Purposes	Ways of assessing
Motivate	Encourage learning	Reading logs Book reports Comprehension tests Speed reading graphs
Measure achievement	Monitor progress Guide teaching Provide feedback to the learner Award a grade	Comprehension tests Speed reading graphs
Diagnose problems	Isolate reading difficulties Provide focused help	Reading aloud Vocabulary tests Receptive grammar tests Translation Speed reading tests
Measure proficiency	Award a grade See if standards are achieved	Comprehension tests Cloze tests Speed reading tests

Topic-124: Measuring Achievement

Measures of achievement focus on the learning done in a particular course. If a course has focuse speed reading, then the achievement measure would be a speed reading measure even though spee reading is only a part of the larger picture of reading proficiency. Similarly, if the course has focused on rea academic texts, the achievement measure could be a comprehension measure using academic te Achievement measures are thus closely related to the course of which they are part. They need to have a level of face validity; that is, they should clearly look like what they are supposed to be measuring. S reading comprehension is a common goal of reading courses we will focus on that in this section. Achieven tests, however, could test various reading strategies, speed of reading, word recognition, reading aloud note-taking from reading, depending on the goals of the course.

Comprehension tests can use a variety of question forms and can have a variety of focuses. Here will look at the various forms and consider their reliability, validity, and practicality.

Pronominal Questions, Imperatives

These questions require learners to make a written answer which can range in length from a sir word to several paragraphs. Usually for comprehension, short answers are required and these forms questions are called short answer questions. If the answers the learners have to make are short, then m questions can be answered, thus increasing the reliability and validity of the test. These questions can used for all focuses of comprehension. They are suited to checking literal comprehension because it is

difficult to write the questions avoiding the same words that are used in the reading text. They are suited t inferences, application and responding critically because the learners have to search for and construct the own answers using what is found in the text. Another positive feature of these types of questions is that the can be marked using a grading scale, for example 0, ½, 1 or 0, 1, 2, 3 marks for each question depending o the completeness and accuracy of the answer. This allows credit to be given for partial comprehension an credit to be given for high quality comprehension.

These positive features have their corresponding disadvantages. When learners write their ow answers, a range of differently worded answers is likely to occur. Markers then have to be consistent and fair i the way they score these answers. This is primarily an issue of reliability. It is best dealt with by making an adding to a list of possible answers with their corresponding marks, and getting another teacher or highl proficient reader to answer the test and then afterwards to check the list of possible answers. Thi prechecking by another teacher may result in changes to the questions to limit the answers that are possible The answer sheet where the learners write their answers can have a set space for each answer and learner have to keep their answers within the limits of that space.

Topic-125: Multiple Choice Questions

These question forms are all grouped together because the answer to the question is contained withi the question or instructions, and thus the learners do not have to compose their answer. This simplifies marking. In the following discussion we will focus on multiple-choice questions because these are the mos difficult to make. Typically there is a stem with four choices, one of which is correct. In order to produce a large number of questions to make the test reliable, quite a long text or several short texts are needed. Marking is usually very easy, and most learners are familiar with multiple-choice tests, although they may not have good strategies for sitting them. Good multiple-choice tests tend to be very reliable.

Multiple-choice questions can focus on details (microstructure) and on more general aspects (macrostructure) of the text, although some researchers have found difficulty in using multiple-choice to measure globa comprehension. Multiple-choice tests only involve reading and so the measurement is less likely to be affected by writing skill than it is in a short answer test. If a multiple-choice test has not been well prepared, learners may be able to get a reasonable score without reading the text, and part of the preparation of a good test involves checking this. Multiple choice questions can be checked by checking the length of the answers to make sure that the correct answer is not always shorter or longer than the distractors, asking a native speaker to answer the test to see if they get all of the answers correct, getting a colleague to look critically at the items to see if they can see any problems with them, and looking at learners' answers to the items to see if some items are too easy or too hard or if the learners are all choosing the same wrong choice.

To make marking easier, a special answer sheet and an answer key may be used. Learners circle the correct answer. Because of the ease of marking, multiple-choice is useful when there are very large numbers of tests to mark. Computer marking is possible. Practicality is strength of using multiple-choice tests. However, making multiple-choice tests is not easy. Making four plausible choices is usually a challenge and good multiple-choice questions require a lot of trialling.

Information Transfer

Incomplete information transfer diagrams can be used to measure comprehension of a text. See Figure 6.1 later in this chapter for an example. The learners read the text and fill in the diagram with short notes. The advantages are that the information the learner produces can cover a lot of points and yet need not involve a lot of writing. The disadvantage is in gaining consistency in marking.

Topic-126: Diagnosing Problems

If a learner is having problems with reading, it is very useful to be able to see where the problems lie. As reading is a complex skill, there are many possible sources of difficulty. So if a learner performs badly on a proficiency measure such as a cloze test or a comprehension test, it is useful to have a procedure which can be followed to find the reasons for the poor performance.

There are four general principles that should be followed. First, diagnosing problems should be done on an individual basis. That is, diagnostic testing should be done with the teacher sitting next to the individual learner and carefully observing what happens. There are several reasons for this. If testing is done with the whole class, individual learners may not give their best effort. In addition, a teacher needs to be able to observe what aspects of the diagnostic task are causing difficulty, and should be able to adjust the testing procedure during the process to get the best information about an individual's problems. Second, diagnosing problems should begin with the smallest units involved and go step by step to the larger units. From a reading perspective, this means starting with word identification, moving to vocabulary knowledge, then to comprehension of single sentences, and then to text comprehension and reading speed. The assumption behind this progression is that the various smaller units combine to contribute to the larger units. Third, as much as possible, learners should feel comfortable with and relaxed during diagnostic testing. This is a difficult principle to apply because in such testing it is obvious to the learner that they are being evaluated in some way. The principle, however, can be applied by the teacher beginning with very easy tasks where the learner can be successful, giving praise for effort and success, being friendly, and frequently taking small breaks to help the learner relax. Fourth, do not rely on only one test. Even where it seems obvious where the problem lies, use a different kind of test possibly at a different level of unit size to double check. Decisions about a

ic-127: Reading Aloud

Reading aloud can be used to check the learner's skill at word
worth observing carefully to see if the learner's eyesight is good. This could be d
at a picture and then asking them questions about it. Quite a large proportion of r
e degree, but that should not affect reading. If the learner seems to have eyesig
ng their eyesight tested by a specialist.

Reading aloud should begin with a very easy short text. If the learner has pro
early in the text, it may be worthwhile pausing and talking about the context of the
ussing some of the ideas that will occur in the text and predicting what might ha
ably not worth keeping a running record of errors for the first text, but if it be
gnition is a major problem, then keeping such a record would be useful. If the lear
word recognition these could be checked against the correspondences in Appen
gular items or if there is some pattern to the errors.

A difficulty with reading aloud for second language learners is that their skill in
n their skill in speaking and so their spoken production may be a poor represer
king to the learner before the reading begins is one way of checking this.

pic-128: Vocabulary Tests

Learners may have difficulty reading because they do not know enough voca
ognition during reading aloud is affected by vocabulary knowledge and so very eas
first when testing reading aloud. Similarly, if the vocabulary test is a written test whi
read the test items, then the measure of vocabulary knowledge will be affected by
arners may have a large spoken vocabulary but be unable to read the words the
cabulary tests can be used with learners of English.

e Bilingual Levels Tests

ere is an item from the Indonesian version of the test (available in Nation, 2004b).

could

during dapat, bisa

this selama

piece supaya

of

in order to

These are tests of the first and second 1,000 words of West's (1953) Genera
available in the following languages—Japanese, Indonesian, Thai, Korean, Chinese (t
Tagalog, Samoan, Tongan, Russian, and Vietnamese. The test is easily marked with
he two levels has 30 items, which is enough for a good level of reliability. Th
strengthened for low proficiency learners by the use of the first language to repres
words. The learners do not have to deal with the more complex language of English d
tested out of context and this can cause problems for words that can have different
which can mean "to close tightly" or "the marine mammal", or bear which can mea
with". The teacher should sit next to the learner while the test is being done to make s
the test seriously, follows a sensible test-taking strategy, knows how to handle the sli
and is not experiencing reading problems which might interfere with the sitting of the
that the teacher does this because it has happened that a whole class of learners sitt
seriously and has got low marks. In this case, the teacher then set up a programme
which the learners actually already knew.

The True/False Vocabulary Test

Here are three sample items (available in Nation, 2001: 412–415; Nation, 2004b; Nat

When something falls, it goes up.

Most children go to school at night.

It is easy for children to remain still.

background knowledge because any one learner is unlikely to have good background knowl texts in the test.

A second reason for using a range of texts is to make the test more representative genres of texts that the learners will have to read in their normal use of the language. A third re there can be several questions each focusing on the same kind of information. For example, measure skill in finding the main idea of a text, the test will be more valid if there are several tex own main idea question.

Should the Time Allowed to Sit a Reading Comprehension Test be Limited?

Obviously, tests cannot be allowed to go on hour after hour, but in general if the aim measure skill, it is best if learners have plenty of time to demonstrate this skill. Sometimes th made between a power test and a speed test. In a power test, learners have largely unrestricte what they can do. A power test where many learners do not have enough time to answer every going to provide a meaningful result.

Should Learners be Allowed to Look Back at the Text when they Answer the Questions?

If learners are not allowed to look back at the text, then the test involves a strong ele remembering. When looking at the results of such a test, we do not know if a poor score is th comprehension, poor memory or both. It could be argued that for some kinds of reading it is able to remember the main ideas of what has been read. If a teacher wants to include this ski there should not be too many questions on each text, probably no more than four or five. The q also focus on what someone could sensibly be expected to remember, such as the main idea rather than very detailed parts of the text.

Should Learners be Allowed to Use Dictionaries?

Studies of the factors involved in reading usually show that vocabulary knowledg component in reading comprehension. Thus, as a general rule, dictionary use should not be a reading comprehension test. Passages which are appropriate to the level of the learners n However, if the aim of the test is to find out how well learners can read a particular type of assistance, then dictionaries could be allowed. Studies of dictionary use in writing have sho large proportion of the time is spent consulting the dictionary. If dictionary use takes a lot of reading and considering the questions, dictionary use may interfere with measuring compreher

Should the Questions be in the First Language and should the Learners be Allowed to First Language?

The idea behind allowing learners to use the first language to answer questions is likely to directly measure comprehension. When the learners have to read second languag write their answers in the second language, comprehension of questions and second languag playing a part in measuring comprehension. Do the learners make poor answers because comprehension of the text, poor comprehension of the questions, poor skill in writing answe language, or any combination of these? If the learners feel comfortable with first language que be worth using.

When Marking Comprehension Questions Requiring Written Answers, should Learne for Poor Spelling, Poor Punctuation, and Poor Grammar?

Reading comprehension tests are supposed to measure reading comprehension. knowledge, particularly skill in writing, should not get in the way of this measurement. If they the test is affected. It is no longer a true measure of reading comprehension. For this reason not be penalized for poor written production as long as what they write can be understood.

Topic-132: Introduction to Teaching Writing

Most students who come for help with literacy will have difficulties with writing. It n they have avoided for years, after negative experiences at school. They feel they cannot ex they wish to write. Many are embarrassed about their handwriting or spelling and don't wan in front of family and friends. Others may be reluctant to seek employment, promotion or education and training for fear it will involve writing.

Writing is a complex process that requires a different range of skills from reading. As visual recognition, so important in reading, it requires recall and reproduction. The process r with traditional pen and paper to writing an email, writing details when booking a flight sending text messages on a mobile phone. Many students find it a daunting task precisely be the co-ordination of so many elements: from clarifying their purpose, planning and sequenc

to the technical aspects, such as handwriting or word processing, spelling, structure, layout and un
information technology. In addition, they may find it takes longer to see progress in writing than in re

Writing should always arise from the student's needs and interests. In the early stages thes
functional, for example letters, application forms, notes to school. However, as tuition progresses,
giving time to encouraging expressive or imaginative writing. This is often the area that students
difficulty with, but expressive writing has the potential to radically change the student's relationsh
written word. By seeing their own words in print, students can develop a sense of mastery and ov
the resulting piece. In addition, many adult learning centers regularly celebrate student achievemen
publishing collections of student writings. These provide a rich source of ideas, as well as encourag
inspiration for other learners.

Topic-133: Principles for Teaching Writing

The following principles can be used to evaluate teaching and learning activities so that the
chosen for use. The principles can also be used to evaluate a writing course or the writing sec
anguage course to make sure that learners are getting a good range of opportunities for learning. Wi
trand the principles are ranked with the most important principle first.

leaning-focused Input

- Learners should bring experience and knowledge to their writing. Writing is most likely to be su
  and meaningful for the learners if they are well prepared for what they are going to wri
  preparation can be done through the choice of topic, or through previous work done on the top
  in the first or second language.

aning-focused Output

- Learners should do lots of writing and lots of different kinds of writing. There are many elements
  writing skill which are peculiar to writing and so time spent writing provides useful practice for
  elements. This is a very robust principle for each of the four skills. Different genres use different
  conventions and draw on different language features (Biber, 1989) and so it is useful to make sur
  learners are getting writing practice in the range of genres that they will have to write in.
- Learners should write with a message-focused purpose. Most writing should be done with the a
  communicating a message to the reader and the writer should have a reader in mind when writin
  the following chapters we will look at ways of doing this.
- Writing should interest learners and draw on their interests.
- Learners should experience a feeling of success in most of their writing.
- Learners should use writing to increase their language knowledge. The section on guided tasks in
  chapter focuses on this.
  Learners should develop skill in the use of computers to increase the quality and speed of their wri
  As we shall see, computers provide very useful ways of providing feedback, especially when
  learners submit their writing as a computer file.
  Writing instruction should be based on a careful needs analysis which considers what the learners n
  to be able to do with writing, what they can do now, and what they want to do.

uage-focused Learning

Learners should know about the parts of the writing process and should be able to discuss them
relation to their own and others' writing. .
Learners should have conscious strategies for dealing with parts of the writing process.
Where the L1 uses a different script or where learners are not literate in their L1, the learners shou
give attention to clarity and fluency in producing the form of the written script. Such activities c
include careful writing, copying models, and doing repetitive writing movements
Spelling should be given an appropriate amount of deliberate attention largely separated from feedba
on writing.
Teachers should provide and arrange for feedback that encourages and improves writing. Chapter 1
ooks at responding to written work.
.earners should be aware of the ethical issues involved in writing.

Development

earners should increase their writing speed so that they can write very simple material at a reasonable
peed. Fluency development can occur through repetitive activities and through working with easy,
miliar material.

34: Designing Tasks

e that a teacher wishes to help learners in her class improve their writing skills. To do this she will
o work on writing tasks that will take them beyond their present level of proficiency. But to make sure

that the learners are successful in doing the tasks, she may have to pro
ways in which she could do this.

1. She could think of a topic that the learners are very familiar with, s
then gets the learners talking about the event so that the ideas an
clear and so that the learners have an oral command of the langu
When all this previous knowledge has been stimulated, the learners
the ideas, organization and necessary language are all familiar t
concentrate on turning these ideas into a written form.
2. The teacher could think of a topic and then put the learners into grou
to plan and produce one piece of writing. By helping each other, the
produce a piece of writing that is better than any one of them could h
3. The teacher finds or makes a guided composition exercise, s
accompanying questions and useful language items.
4. The teacher chooses a topic and then lets the learners get on with th
they need it, but they are mainly left to work independently.

These four kinds of tasks are called experience tasks, shared tasks, guided

One way to look at these types of tasks is to see their job as dealing
learners' present knowledge and the demands of the learning task. Experie
much as possible by using or developing learners' previous experience. Sha
each other cross the gap. Guided tasks try to bridge the gap by providing th
guidance. Independent tasks leave learners to rely on their own resources.

Experience Tasks

A very effective way of making a task easier is to make sure that the
parts of it as possible. This has several effects. First, it makes sure that lea
to think about several different things at the same time. Second, it a
concentrate on the part of the task that they need to learn. Third, it hel
language activity in a normal way with a high chance of success.

Topic-135: Bringing Tasks within the Learners' Experie

One of the most common examples of an experience task in forei
graded readers. Once learners have a vocabulary of 300 words or more, th
graded readers because these are written within that vocabulary level. No
able to read books written in English because unsimplified texts would be
because Stage 1 graded readers use vocabulary that is familiar to the learn
and involve simple types of stories, elementary learners are able to read
difficulty and with a feeling of success. The task of reading a graded reade
of the graded reader has brought many of the parts of the task within the lea

In Chapter 2 we saw another way of doing this for reading which is
schools. The teacher sits with a learner who has just drawn a picture. The l
the picture and the teacher writes down the learner's story in the learner's v
learner's reading text. It is not difficult for the learner to read because the la
the sequence of ideas in the story are all within the learner's experience. Th
is also the learning goal of the activity, is the decoding of the written words.

Here is an example of how a writing task could be brought within the
are given a task to do which involves some reading and a following proble
write up. After doing the reading, the learners get together in first language g
the activity they will have to do in their first language. When they are
understanding of what needs to be done, they then individually do the acti
discussion in the first language makes sure that they truly understand the
and the nature of the task.

Topic-136: Making Sure Learners Have the Experience t

If learners do not have enough experience to do a task, then either th
brought within their experience, or the learners can be provided with the e
the task. A common way of providing learners with experience is to take
example, the teacher may take the class to a fire station. While they are th
can about the fire station. They may even have a set of questions to ans
should be easier because the learners have experienced the ideas th
heard the language items that [illegible]

1. Some people pushed her over the bank.
2. The noise frightened her.

For join the sentences (sentence combining) the learners are given pairs of sentences. They must join together the two sentences to make one sentence. This type of exercise is used to practise conjunctions, adjectives + to + stem, relative clauses, etc. Here are some examples.

This coffee is hot. I can't drink it.

This coffee is too hot to drink.

1. She is still young. She can't marry you.
2. He is tired. He can't go.

I met the man. You talked about him before.

I met the man who you talked about before.

1. Your friend is waiting near the shop. The shop is next to the cinema.
2. I will lend you the book. You wanted it.

There has been a lot of first language research on sentence combining generally showing positive effects (Hillocks, 1984; Hillocks, 1991). The motivation for sentence combining for first language learners is that the most reliable measure of first language writing development is a measure related to the number of complex sentences (the T-unit). Sentence combining is thus seen as a way of focusing directly on this aspect of writing development.

In **writing by steps** the learners are given a passage. They must add certain things to it, or make other changes. Here is an example from Dykstra, Port and Port (1966). The same passage can be used several times for different exercises at different levels of difficulty

In guided activities a large part of the writing has already been done for the learners and they focus on some small part that they must do. The activity provides support while learners do the writing.

With **marking guided writing** guided compositions can be marked by a group of learners using model answers before they are handed to the teacher. The teacher just checks to see that the learners have done the marking correctly.

Topic-139: Independent Tasks

Independent tasks require the learners to work alone without any planned help. Learners can work successfully on independent tasks when they have developed some proficiency in the language and when they have command of helpful strategies. These strategies can develop from experience, shared, or guided tasks. Let us look at learners faced with a difficult independent reading task, such as writing an assignment.

1. **An experience approach.** The learners could write several drafts. During each rewriting, the learners have the experience gained from the previous writings and preparation.
2. **A shared approach.** The learners could ask the teacher or classmates for help when they need it.
3. **A guided approach.** The learners could guide their writing by asking questions, by using an information transfer diagram or a well worked out set of notes that they have prepared, or by finding a good example of the kind of writing they want to do.

A good independent task has the following features:

(1) it provides a reasonable challenge, i.e. it has some difficulty but the learners can see that with effort they can do it;
(2) it is a task that learners are likely to face outside the classroom.

The difference between an experience and independent task lies in the control and preparation that goes into an experience task. Experience tasks are planned so that learners are faced with only one aspect of the task that is outside their previous experience. Independent tasks do not involve this degree of control and learners may be faced with several kinds of difficulty in the same task.

Topic-140: Using the Four Kinds of Tasks for Teaching Writing

The aim in describing the four kinds of tasks is to make teachers aware of the possible approaches to dealing with the gap between the learners' knowledge and the knowledge required to do a task, and to make them aware of the very large number of activities that can be made to help learners. When teachers are able to think of a variety of ways of dealing with a problem, they can then choose the ones that will work best in their class. Let us end by looking at another example of the range of tasks available in a particular situation.

Your learners need to write about land use in the Amazon basin. For several reasons this task will be difficult for them. There are new concepts to learn, there is new vocabulary, and the text should be written in a rather academic way. What can the teacher do to help the learners with this task?

(things you wish had turned out differently)

If I hadn't failed my exams, I would have gone to university.

(things you are pleased about)

If I hadn't gone to that party, I wouldn't have met my boyfriend.

The same kind of sentence writing can be used to get students to practice or research vocabu following exercise shows:

Write a sentence about a friend or a member of your family using at least two of these characte proud, kind, friendly, helpful, impatient...

Reinforcement writing need not be confined to sentence writing, however. Students can a to write paragraphs or longer compositions to practice certain recently focused-on aspects of paragraph and text construction, Students might be asked to write a story about some' that happe (or that is based on a character or events in their course book) as a good way of having them tenses, They could be asked to write a description of someone they know because this is a getting them to use the character and physical description vocabulary they have been studying.

Topic-144: Preparation Writing

Writing is frequently useful as preparation for some other activity, in particular when s sentences as a preamble to discussion activities. This gives students time to think up ideas rathe to come up with instant fluent opinions, something that many, especially at lower levels, find awkward. Students may be asked to write a sentence saying what their opinion is about a cert example, they may be asked to complete sentences such as:

I like/don't like going to parties because...

This means that when the class as a whole is asked to talk about going to parties they ca out what they have written, or use what they thought as they wrote, to make their points. Anoth when a discussion topic is given to a class, is for students to talk in groups to prepare their argu can make written notes which they may use later during the discussion phase. In these cases, has been used as preparation for something else, it is an immensely enabling skill even thoug main focus of an activity.

Topic-145: Activity Writing

Writing can also, of course, be used as an integral part of a larger activity where th something else such as language practice, acting out, or speaking. Teachers often ask students dialogues which they will then act out. The dialogues are often most useful if planned to prac functional areas, such as inviting or suggesting. Students work in pairs to make the dialogu possible, the teacher goes to help them as they write. They now have something they can read o the class.

'Writing is also used in questionnaire-type activities. Groups of students may be aske questionnaire, for example about the kind of music people like. The teacher then asks them all to circulate around the class asking their colleagues the questions they have previously prepare down the answers and then report back to the class on what they have found out.

Once again, writing is used to help students perform a different kind of activity (in this c and listening). Students need to be able to write to do these activities, but the activities do not t to write.

It will be clear from the above that not all writing activities necessarily help students effectively, or, if they do, that is a by-product of the activity rather than its main purpose. Howeve for-learning' activities we have discussed so far do depend on the students' ability to write alread attempt to teach a new writing skill or show students how to work in unfamiliar genres, for exampl

Teaching 'writing for writing' is entirely different, however, since our objective here is to he become better writers and to learn how to write in various genres using different registers. Gen improvement may, of course, occur, but that is a by-product of a 'writing- for-writing' activity, not main purpose. The kind of writing teaching with which this book is mostly concerned is quite distinct from the teaching of grammatical or lexical accuracy and range, even though both may result of it.

Although, as we shall see in the next chapter, it is important to help students wi handwriting, orthography (the spelling system), and punctuation, teaching writing is more than ju these features too. It is about helping students to communicate real messages in an appropriate

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Once again, writing is used to help students perform a different kind of activity (in this and listening). Students need to be able to write to do these activities, but the activities do not to write.

It will be clear from the above that not all writing activities necessarily help students effectively, or, if they do, that is a by-product of the activity rather than its main purpose. Howe for-learning' activities we have discussed so far do depend on the students' ability to write alre attempt to teach a new writing skill or show students how to work in unfamiliar genres, for exam

Teaching 'writing for writing' is entirely different, however, since our objective here is to h become better writers and to learn how to write in various genres using different registers. Ge improvement may, of course, occur, but that is a by-product of a 'writing- for-writing' activity, no main purpose. The kind of writing teaching with which this book is mostly concerned is quit distinct from the teaching of grammatical or lexical accuracy and range, even though both ma result of it.

Although, as we shall see in the next chapter, it is important to help students handwriting, orthography (the spelling system), and punctuation, teaching writing is more than j these features too. It is about helping students to communicate real messages in an appropriate

Topic-146: Writing Purposes (I)

When teaching 'writing for writing' we need to make sure that our ... we saw previously, effective writers usually have a purpose in mind and construct their writing with a view ... achieving that purpose.

The most effective learning of writing skills is likely to take place when students are writing real messag... for real audiences, or at least when they are performing tasks which they are likely to have to do in their out-... class life. The choice of writing tasks will depend, therefore, on why students are studying English. 'There a... three main categories of learning which it is worth considering:

- **English as a Second Language (ESL)** - this term is normally used to describe students who are livi... in the target language community and who need English to function in that community on a day-to-d... basis, Recent immigrants and refugees, for example, will have specific writing needs such as the abil... to fill in a range of forms, or write particular kinds of letters (depending upon their exact needs a... circumstances), alongside the need for general English development.
- **English for Specific Purposes (ESP)** - many students study English for a particular (or specif... purpose. People who are going to work as nurses in Britain or the USA, for example, will study medic... English. Those who are going to study at an English-medium university need to concentrate on Engli... for Academic Purposes (EAP). Business students will concentrate on the language of management a... commerce, and so on,

'The choice of topics and tasks for such students should not only develop their general langua... competence but also be relevant to their reason for study. For example, writing tasks for business students c... have a high face validity if the students can see that they are writing the kind of letters and documents whi... they will be writing in their professional life. Likewise nurses in training, when asked to write up a simulat... patient record in their English class, will clearly see the value of such a task.

- **English as a Foreign Language (EFL)** - this is generally taken to apply to students who are studyi... general English at schools and institutes in their own country or as transitory visitors in a targ... language country. 'Their needs are often not nearly so easy to pin down as the two categories we ha... mentioned above.

While it is perfectly possible to ask school students what their needs are or will be it is unlikely that it w... be easy to make a list of any but the most general aims. In the case of adult students, it is often hard to fi... writing tasks that are directly relevant to the varying needs of a class full of students from differe... backgrounds and occupations, Nevertheless, it may well be possible to arrive at a set of tasks that are a use... compromise between the competing claims of the individuals in a class.

Topic-147: Writing Purposes (II)

'The best thing we can do is to concentrate on a repertoire of writing tasks that it is reasonable ... assume that most speakers of English may have to take part in at some stage in their English-speaking live... Most of such writing activities fall on a cline somewhere between real purpose versus invented purpose task... Real purpose tasks are precisely the ones that we can predict our students will probably need to perform ... some stage. The letters we looked at in this chapter (on pages 35-38) fall near the 'real purpose' end of o... cline since it is likely that our students will, at some stage, have to write formal and semi-formal letters of th... same type. Similarly, we might well get our students to look at the language of e-mails and have them practi... writing their own, or get them to write a report of a process or situation.

Invented purposes, on the other hand, are those which, however engaging, are unlikely to be direct... relevant to our students' future needs. A popular activity in many classrooms is to have students write letters ... imaginary magazine problem pages and then have other students reply in the guise of 'agony aunts'. Studen... will probably never need to write 'agony' letters in English, but such an activity will provoke them into thinkin... about how to best express themselves in writing, and how to format a letter, for example. In the same way, w... might have students look at the kind of lonely hearts' advertisements that appear in many newspapers a... magazines, not because our students will need to write such advertisements, but because by looking at the... with a quizzical eye they can develop their genre-analyzing habits. This, in turn, may help them to write th... kind of telegraphic writing that is common in advertisements and newspaper headlines. On top of that, ... students find the activity amusing and engaging it will help to build in them a positive attitude to writing (a sk... often viewed with less enthusiasm than, say, speaking)

One other skill needs to be discussed here, and that is exam writing. Although many tests a... becoming computerized and heavily reliant on multiple-choice questions, many still have a writing compone... designed to discover the candidate's integrative language abilities ~ that is, their ability to write texts displayi... correct grammar, appropriate lexis, and coherent organization, Integrative test items (which ask students ... display all these skills) are different from discrete test items where only one thing, for example a gramm... point, is tested at one time. Whereas the former test 'writing for writing', the latter use writing only as a mediu... for language testing.

Topic-148: Creative Writing

Creative writing is one area (like painting and composing) where the imagination has a chance to r... see. The world is full of people who achieve great personal satisfaction in this way. In their book Proce...

Writing, the authors Ron White and Valerie Arndt describe an approach that 'views all writing — even the most mundane and routine ~ as creative'. Such an approach would even include, at some level, the putting together of a shopping list, But we are concerned here with tasks that provoke students to go beyond the everyday, and which ask them to spread their linguistic wings, take some chances, and use the language they are learning to express more personal or more complex thoughts and images. We can ask them to write stories or poems, to write journals, or to create dramatic scenarios. This will not be easy, of course, because of the limitations many students come up against when writing in the L2. Nor will all students respond well to the invitation to be ambitious and to take risks, but for some, the provision of genuinely creative tasks may open up avenues, they have not previously travelled down either in the L1 or the L2.

Creative writing tasks are nearer the 'invented purpose' end of our purpose cline, but they can still be very motivating since they provide opportunities for students to display their work - to show off, in other words, in a way that speaking often does not. The writing they produce can be pinned up on notice-boards, collected in class folders or magazines, or put up as a page on a class site on a school intranet or on the World Wide Web itself, Nor should we forget that this use of writing is one of the few occasions that students write for a wider audience; for once it may not just be the teacher who will read their work.

Topic-149: The Tasks of Teacher in Writing (I)

'When helping students to become better writers, teachers have a number of crucial tasks to perform. This is especially true when students are doing 'writing-for-writing' activities, where they may be reluctant to express themselves or have difficulty finding ways and means of expressing themselves to their satisfaction. 'Among the tasks which teachers have to perform before, during, and after student writing are the following:

- **Demonstrating** — since, as we have said, students need to be aware of writing conventions and genre constraints in specific types of writing, teachers have to be able to draw these features to the attention. In whatever way students are made aware of layout issues or the language used to perform certain written functions, for example, the important issue is that they are made aware of these things that these things are drawn to their attention.
- **Motivating and provoking** — student writers often find themselves 'lost for words', especially creative writing tasks. This is where the teacher can help, provoking the students into having idea enthusing them with the value of the task, and persuading them what fun it can be. It helps, for example, if teachers go into class with prepared suggestions so that when students get stuck they can immediately get help rather than having, themselves, to think of ideas on the spot. Time spent preparing amusing and engaging ways of getting students involved in a particular writing task will not be wasted. Students can be asked to complete tasks on the board or reassemble jumbled texts as prelude to writing; they can be asked to exchange 'virtual' e-mails or discuss ideas before the writing activity starts. Sometimes teachers can give them the words they need to start a writing task as a way of getting them going.

Topic-150: The Tasks Of Teacher in Writing (II)

- **Supporting** — closely allied to the teacher's role as motivator and provoker is that of supporting. Students need a lot of help and reassurance once they get going, both with ideas and with the means to carry them out. Teachers need to be extremely supportive when students are writing in class, always available (except during exam writing of course), and prepared to help students overcome difficulties.
- **Responding** — the way we react to students' written work can be divided into two main categories that of responding and that of evaluating, When responding, we react to the content and construction of a piece supportively and often (but not always) make suggestions for its improvement. When we respond to a student's work at various draft stages, we will not be grading the work or judging it as a finished product. We will, instead, be telling the student how well it is going so far. 'When students write journals (see Chapter 8) we may respond by reacting to what they have said (e.g. 'Your holiday sounds very interesting, Silvia. I liked the bit about running out of petrol but I didn't understand exactly who went and got some petrol. Could you possibly write and tell me in your next journal entry?') rather than filling their journal entry full of correction symbols. We might also make comments about their use of language and suggest ways of improving it (e.g. 'Be careful with your past tenses, Nejati, Look at the verbs I've underlined and see if you can write them correctly.' but this is done as part of a process rather than part of an evaluation procedure.
- **Evaluating** — there are many occasions, however, when we do want to evaluate students' work, telling both them and us how well they have done. All of us want to know what standard we have reached (as in the case of a progress/achievement test). When evaluating our students' writing for test purposes we can indicate where they wrote well and where they made mistakes, and we may award grades; although test-marking is different from responding, we can still use it not just to grade students but also as a learning opportunity. When we hand back marked scripts we can get our students to look at the errors we have highlighted and try to put them right — rather than simply stuffing the corrected piece of work into the back of their folders and never looking at them again.

Lesso

THE WRITING PROCESS I

Topic-151: Introduction to the Writing Process

- to entertain
- to maintain friendly contact
- to store information
- to help remember information

Role

write as yourself

write as some other person

Audience

- self specified individual
- specified group
- classmates
- general public

Type of writing

- a note or formal letter
- a formal letter
- résumé, summary, paraphrase
- narrative
- description
- exposition, analysis, definition, classification
- narrative, description, with evaluative comment
- argument
- literary
- advertisement, media
- journal writing

Topic-154: Gathering Ideas

Leibman-Kleine (1987) suggests that techniques for gathering ideas about a topic can be class hree groups. The first group consists of open-ended, free-ranging activities where all ideas are consi he learners follow whatever path their mind takes. Typical of these are brainstorming and quickwritin ctivities could be preceded by relaxation activities where learners are encouraged to use all their s xplore a topic. The second group consists of systematic searching procedures such as questionir hy, where, when . . .) or filling in an information transfer diagram. In all cases the learners have set llow to make sure they consider all the important parts of the topic. Research by Franken (1988) ha at when learners are in command of the ideas in a topic, the grammatical errors are significantly re eir writing. The third group consists of techniques which help learners gather and organize ideas at t me. These include using tree diagrams and concept diagrams or maps. These all involve arranging id elationships, particularly according to importance and level of generality. One of the biggest blocks in v lack of ideas. Techniques which help learners gather ideas will have good effects on all other aspects riting.

For group brainstorming the learners get together in small groups and suggest as many ideas a riting topic that they can think of. At first no idea is rejected or criticized because it may lead to othe ne person in the group keeps a record of the ideas.

With list making before writing, each learner makes a list of ideas to include in the writing. Afte made then the learner attempts to organize it and this may lead to additions to the list.

Looping is when each learner writes as quickly as possible on the topic for 4 or 5 minutes. Th op, read what they have written, think about it and write one sentence summarizing it. Then they re ocedure once more.

Cubing is when the learners consider the topic from six angles: (1) describe it; (2) compar sociate it; (4) analyse it; (5) apply it; (6) argue for and against it. They note the ideas that each c ints of view suggest and decide which ones they will use in their writing. Other similar procedures king, "who, what, when, where, how, why". So, for the topic "Should parents hit their children?",the l rk in small groups and

provide them with **checklists** (or scales) containing points to look for in their writing. Re
indicates that such scales have a significant effect on improving the quality of written work (H

In peer feedback learners read their incomplete work to each other to get comment
on how to improve and continue it. The learners can work in groups and read each other's c
make suggestions for revising before the teacher marks the compositions (Dixon, 1986).
trained to give helpful comments and can work from a checklist or a list of questions (Pica, 19

Topic-157: Editing I

Editing involves going back over the writing and making changes to its organization,
and lexical correctness, and appropriateness. Like all the other parts of the writing process
occur in a fixed place in the process. Writers can be periodically reviewing what they write,
proceeding with the writing. Thus, editing is not restricted to occurring after all the writing ha
Learners can be encouraged to edit through the feedback that they get from their classm
other readers. Such feedback is useful if it occurs several times during the writing process a
ways that the writer finds acceptable and easy to act on. Feedback that focuses only on gran
not help with editing of content. Teachers need to look at their feedback to make sure it is
of possibilities. Using a marking sheet divided into several categories is one way of doing
such a sheet for learners writing university assignments. It encourages comment on feature
legibility of the handwriting to the quality of the ideas and their organization.

Topic-158: Diagnosing Control of the Parts of the Writing Process

An advantage of seeing writing as a process consisting of related parts is that a write
of the parts can be examined in order to see what parts are well under the writer's control
be worked on. Poor control of some of the parts may lead to a poor performance on other pa

There are three ways of getting information about control of the parts

- looking closely at the written product, that is, the pieces of writing that the written
- questioning the writer
- Observing the writer going through the process of writing.

Here we will look at the types of information that can be gathered by looking clo
roduct. For each part of the writing process, we will look at the kinds of questions a teacher
or by analyzing a piece of writing.

opic-159: Diagnosing from the Written Product

he Goals of the Writer

The questions try to find out if the writer is writing with a communicative purpose. P
is part of the process is signaled by the lack of a cohesive purpose.

- Does the piece of writing have a clear goal, such as presenting a balanced pi
or convincing the reader of a point of view, or providing a clear description of
- Has the writer clearly stated the goal and is this statement a true reflection o
writing does?

Model of the Reader

These questions try to find out if the writer has a clear and consistent picture of who
Poor performance in this part of the process is signaled by inconsistent style, lack
der needs it and too much information where the reader already knows it.

- Is the degree of formality or informality consistent throughout the piece of
- Is the amount of detail suited to the knowledge that the reader will bring to
- If the writing is based on a set question, does the degree of formality in th
level of formality in the question?

ering Ideas

These questions try to find out if the writer has included enough ideas in the pie
rmance in this part of the process is the result of not having enough to say.

- Does the piece of writing contain plenty of relevant, interesting ideas?
- Does the range of ideas provide a suitably complete coverage of the parts
- Does the piece of writing draw on a range of sources of information, for
opinion or experience, information gathered from reading, or original data

Topic-165: Introduction

Writing is a medium of human communication that represents language with signs and syml languages that utilize a writing system, inscriptions can complement spoken language by creating a version of speech that can be stored for future reference or transmitted across distance. Writing, words, is not a language, but a tool used to make languages readable. Within a language system, writi on many of the same structures as speech, such as vocabulary, grammar, and semantics, with th dependency of a system of signs or symbols. The result of writing is called text, and the recipient called a reader.

Topic-166: Teaching Mechanics of Writing

'Writing, like any other skill, has its 'mechanical' components. These include handwriting, punctuation, and the construction of well-formed sentences, paragraphs, and texts. Such things are and bolts of the writing skill and they need to be focused on at certain stages of learning to write in The greater the difference between the student's L1 and English, in some or all of these areas, the b challenge for student and teacher alike.

'The activities in this chapter - which are designed to help students overcome proble handwriting and spelling, for example — are enabling exercises on the way to developing an overa ability. Similarly, the techniques which are described here, such as copying and parallel writing (im written model), help to give students a basic mechanical competence which they can then put to u they write more creatively.

Topic-167: Teaching Handwriting

Although a lot of writing is typed on computer keyboards, handwriting is still necessary and wid whether in exam writing, postcards, forms (such as application forms), etc. It should be remembered however fast computer use is growing it is still, in world terms, a minority 'occupation.

Handwriting can be particularly difficult for some students. For those who are brought characters such as in Chinese or Japanese or using very different scripts as in Arabic or Indonesia, Roman cursive or joined-up lettering presents a number of problems. Areas of difficulty can include p the shapes of English letters, not only in upper case (capitals) but also in their lower case (nc equivalents. The relative size of individual letters in a word or text can cause problems, as can thei positioning with or without ruled lines.

For students accustomed in their L1 to from right to left, 'Western script, which of course go opposite direction, can involve not only problems of perception but also nictitates a different angle and for the writing arm. For students who have trouble with some or all of the above aspects of handwriting, teachers can follow a two-stage approach which involves first the recognition and production of letters. If students are to form English letters correctly, they have to recognize them example, they can be asked to recognize specific letters within a on sequence of letters.

Topic-168: The Spelling Challenge

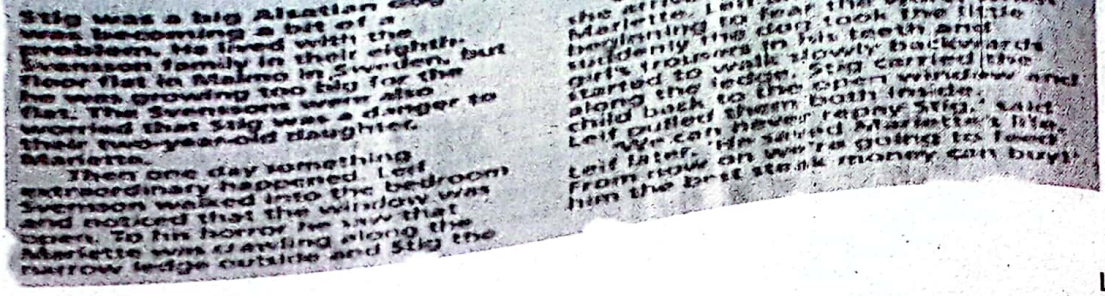
Many people say that English spelling is irregular and therefore difficult, and they make a featu lack of spelling-sound correspondence which, although not unique, is a feature of English. They point the same sounds can be spelt differently, as in threw and through which both sound as; and the same can be pronounced differently, as in threw and sew or through and through which are said with co different vowel sounds. English spelling is complex but it is not completely random and is, in fact, fairly there are usually clear rules about when certain spellings are and are not acceptable.

English spelling rules do often have exceptions but these usually only apply to a small nu individual words. A standard regularity such as the fact that gd at the end of words is silent, for exa broken by words like enough; yet enough is only one of seven words that behave in such a way. In t way many English language spellers know the rule 'i before ¢ except after ¢ to explain the spelling o vs. conceive, but there are exceptions to this familiar rule (e.g. seize, weird, species, Neil). However, it remembering that exceptions which cause confusion are just that ~ exceptions.

Learners of English need to be aware about how we use different spellings to distinguish homophones (words that sound the same but are spelt differently) such as threw and through, Pairs that sound identical — like sun and son, sew and so, threw and through — are immediately differer writing. What can be seen as a disadvantage in terms of sound and spelling correspondence, in other actually serving an important and useful purpose.

Spellings make English relatively easy to read. Word roots, for example, are always recogniza when we add affixes: prefixes (like wn-, dis-) or suffixes (like -ist, -able, and -ed). It is easy to perc connection between sing and singing, or between art and artist, or rule and ruler. And similarly, the fu affixes is reflected in their spelling. For example, the -ist and -est endings are pronounced the same the words artist and fastest; it is the spelling that makes it clear that whereas the first ending denotes s who does something (ar4) the second gives a one-syllable adjective its superlative form.

Topic-169: Teaching Spelling



Topic: 176: Introduction Building the Writing Habit

'Begin at the beginning, 'the King said, very gravely, 'and 'go on till you come to the end; then stop.'

From 'Alice's Adventures in Wonderland' by Lewis Carroll

- Building Confidence and enthusiasm
- Instant writing
- Collaborative writing
- Writing to each other
- What to do with 'habit-building' writing

Topic: 177: Building Confidence and Enthusiasm (I)

Although some students are always happy to have a go at writing in English, others can be lees keer This unwillingness may derive from anxieties they have about their handwriting, their spelling, or their ability t construct sentences and paragraphs. And if these insecurities are reinforced because they are unable t complete writing tasks successfully, then the students' attitude to writing is likely to become more and mor negative.

The students' reluctance to write can also be because they rarely write even in their own language, ar so the activity feels alien. Another powerful disincentive is the fear that they have 'nothing to say' – a comm response of many students when asked to write. Finally, writing just does not interest some students; su people seem to be unwilling to invest the time and effort that they think a writing task demands.

With student like this who lack familiarity or confidence with writing (or indeed enthusiasm for it) v need to spend some time building the **writing habit**- that is making students feel comfortable s writers extended activities. This will involve choosing the right kinds of activity- with appropriate levels of challeng and providing them with enough language and information to allow them to complete writing tasks successful

Choosing writing tasks and activities:

It is important that we choose writing activities which have a chance of appealing to our students- a which have, if possible, some relevance for them. Writing fairy stories might appeal to children but could fai inspire a group of university students (though that is not necessarily the case, of course, as we will see further topics).

If we are lucky we will have a good idea of not only what kind of writing students are likely to have to in English in the future, but also what kind of subjects and tasks they will enjoy-or have enjoyed in the p This will help us choose writing tasks either because students need them or because they are likely to motivated by them because the tasks are engaging I themselves.

An **engaging** writing is one that involves students not just intellectually but emotionally as we amuses them, or makes them feel good. When students are 'switched on' by engaging tasks there is a g chance that some of their doubts about writing will disappear.

What engages people may be different for different students, but clearly the stimulus we provide encourage them to write) will make a difference. Music, for example, can be used to awaken the stud creativity, especially if they respond particularly well to **auditory** input. Pictures can have the same effec those who are stimulated by **visual** input. Having students write jointly on the board or swap papers ar caters for those who respond **kinaesthetic** stimulation (to movement and physical activity). Writing tasks be initiated and conducted in a number of different ways, in other words, and if we are to build the writing in the greatest number of our students we need to be aware of the variety of tastes and interests they have

Except in the most goal-focused ESP classes, students are likely to respond best to a wide varie tasks, topics, and genres over a period of time. Though we may want to revisit a writing genre-so that stu

can apply what they learned first time round for this second try-we will want to give students the widest rang possible. Variety is as important in writing tasks and the activities that go with them as it is for other areas language learning such as speaking; listening; and reading.

Topic: 178: Building Confidence And Enthusiasm (II)

What students need?

As we saw at the beginning of this chapter, there are many reasons why students may not be confide or willing writers. In order to counteract these potential problems we have to identify what our students need they are to have a reasonable chance of success:

- **Information & task information**- students need to have the necessary information t complete the task. This means that they need to understand clearly what we want the to do and they need, also, to be absolutely clear about any of the topic detail that w give them. If we ask them to respond to an invitation, who they are writing to, and what is they are trying to achieve. If we ask them to write a poem, they need to have a clea understanding of the topic(s) they will be dealing with. If they are involved in collaborative writing activity they need to know what they are writing about, who write what, and how the writing sequence is going to progress.
- **Language**- if students need specific language to complete a writing task we need to giv to them (or help them to find it). This may involve offering those phrases, parts c sentences, or words.

  Of course there are times when we just get students to write 'without thinking', t provoke their use of all and any of the language they know. But where a tas depends on certain written formulate it would be pointless not to offer these t the students.
- **Ideas**- teachers need to be able to suggest ideas to help students when they get stuck For some this may be just a word or two. For others we may need to dictate a ha sentence or even something more substantial. One of the skills of a good writing teache is to able to throw out suggestions without crowding out the individual students with to much oppressive detail. In order to do this we have to be aware of which students nee more or less help and stimulation, especially where students are working on their ow rather than collaboratively (see below).
- **Patterns & schemes**- one way of helping students to write even when they may thin they do not have many idea, is to give them a pattern or a scheme to follow. In 'worked on' writing this will frequently happen when students first study a writing genre and the create their examples of the same genre (e.g. 'an advertisement', 'a postcard', ' curriculum vitae', etc.). even with more instant writing, however, the students' lives wi be made much easier if there is a pattern and scheme to follow. The poetry activities w will look at in this chapter bear this out, as do some of the collaborative writing procedures. In these cases students are given a frame to wrote support. It is often easie to write when constrained than it is when there is nothing in front of you except for a blank piece of paper or a blank screen.

When students are involved I the kind of process writing or genre-based construction we talked about i the first chapters, the identification of suitable topics and tasks successfully are both absolutely vital They are important too, for task which aims to build the writing habit- that is tasks whose principal ain is to have students writing fluently and enthusiastically, genre approaches. Two such areas of habi building are **instant writing** and **collaborative writing**.

opic: 179: Instant Writing

There are stages in any lesson where students can e asked to write on the spot, without much in the y of preparation or warning; this is **instant writing**.

Because instant writing is not part of a long writing process, it can be used whenever the icher feels it appropriate. The tasks may each take only ten or fifteen minutes or be even shorter; but a ular diet of such tasks will boost students' confidence, if they are appropriate, since each time they will have nething worthwhile and interesting to show for their efforts.

The following activities provide some example of instant writing.

ntence writing:

As we have seen, students can be asked to write sentences either as language reinforcement or ir paration for a forthcoming activity. The following activities could also be used for such purposes, but thei pose here is to make reluctant writers feel more comfortable and to remove the problems of those who think have nothing to say:

- **Dictating sentences for completion**: a very simple way of getting students to write creatively is to dictate part of a sentence which they then have to complete about themselves. For example, we car dictate the following:
  'My favorite time of day is....'

- **Film scores-** in these activity students listen to a piece of music and then create the opening scenes for a film that the music suggests to them- they should describe the scenes before the dialogue starts. They can write in note form if they wish.

  Film music can be used for this, but so too can any piece of evocative music such as the third movement from Debussy's string quartet, show saxophone music solo violin or cello music by Bach, or rock, trance, or folk music, for example.

  Once again, when students have written the scene they imagined, they can compare what they have written with their classmates.

- **How does it make me feel? –** Teacher can play students musical excerpts and get them to write their reactions as they listen. They can be given prompts which will help them to do this such as: 'What color do you think the music is?' 'Where would you most like to hear it, and who would you like to have with you when you do?'
- **Musical stories-** students can write stories on the basis of music they listen to. If the music conveys a strong atmosphere it will often spark the students' creativity and almost 'tell' them who to write.

  One way of showing students this is an amusing way is for the teacher to dictate the first line of a story (e.g. he turned and looked at her). Students are told that they should continue the story when the music starts. "The music will tell you what to write." Students then hear a piece of music which is particularly nostalgic, or sad, or frenetic, for example.

  When all students have written their two stories, they show them to colleagues who then read out one of the stories. The class have to decide which bit of music it was written to.

Teachers should use musical activities sparingly, for two reasons. First, the activities mentioned here work best when they unusual-something which gives them their special quality and which, as a result, allow them to provoke students' creativity. Second, not all students can respond immediately to music.

We need to be careful, also, not to play too long a piece of music. Students may well get something out of an excerpt which lasts for between two and three minutes but they may well lose interest in an excerpt which goes on for much longer than that.

Topic: 180: Collaborative Writing

The car designer Sir Alec Issigonis is credited as the originator of the phrase 'a camel is a horse designed by a committee', and it may well be that in that in the world of design too many people do, indeed get in the way of sensible decision making. Yet group activities in language classroom writing allow students to learn from each other. It gives each member of the collaboration access to others' minds and knowledge, and imbues the task with a sense of shared goals which can be very motivating. And in the end, although the collaborators may have to share whatever glory is going (rather than keep it for them individually), still, any less-than-successful outcome is also shared so that individuals are not held solely responsible for any shortcomings in what they produce. For these reasons collaborative writing, as exemplified in the following activities, has the power to foster the writing habit in a unique way.

Using the board:

One way of making collaborative writing successful is to have students write on board. This gets them out of their chairs; it is especially appropriate for those who respond well to kinesthetic stimuli. It also allows everyone to see what is going on. Two activities show how the board can be used in this way:

Sentence by sentence- in the activity on previous pages we saw how student built up a letter in reply to an invitation on the board, sentence by sentence. Each time a new student goes up to the board in such activities, the rest of the class (or the group that student represent) can help by offering suggestions Corrections, or alternatives.

This kind of writing activity has the great advantage of creating a clear focus for everyone in the room and can create a feeling of shared achievement.

Dictogloss- in his book *how to teach grammar,* Scott Thornbury describes a procedure called dictogloss, in which students re-create a text or story that the teachers read to them. One purpose of this activity is to focus the students' attention on specific items of language by getting them to analyse the difference between their written re-creations and the original which they have heard.

Dictogloss is useful for vocabulary acquisition too in very much the same way. And on top of that it is especially appropriate for building the writing habit.

In the following example the teacher uses their own words to tell students the story of a boy called Jesse Arbogast who was attacked by a shark. The first time they hear the story students are told just to listen and not to make notes. The teacher uses whatever language, mime, or gesture necessary to ensure that the students understand the main facts of the story.

In pairs, the students now discuss what they have heard and try to establish the main facts of the story. Once this has been done the teacher tells them that they are going to hear the story again, and that this time

'The best film I have ever seen is...'

'One of the most exciting things that have ever happened to me is...'

Teacher can also dictate sentence frames (or write them up on the board). If the topic is 'animals', we can say:

'Although I like..., I'm not very keen on...'

- **Writing sentences**- students can be asked to write two or three sentences about a certain topic. For example, suppose students have been working on the topic of 'hopes and ambitions', they can write three sentences about how they would like their lives to change in the future. If they are discussing education, they can write sentences about why exams are good thing or a bad thing. If they have been discussing anti-social behavior, the teacher can ask them to write three don't sentences (e.g. *don't listen to loud music after eleven o' clock*).
- **The weather forecast**- at the beginning of the day the teacher asks students to write about themselves and their day as if they were writing a weather forecast: 'What's the 'weather' like now? Are you happy or tired, listless or energetic? How are you likely to feel later on, in the afternoon?'

Activities like this work extremely well for some students, because they allow them to be creative in sn amusing and thought-provoking way. Sentence writing is one way of getting students to write quickly while at the same time allowing them to write things that mean something to them personally.

Using Music:

Music can be a very effective way to stimulate a writing activity since it often provokes strong feelings and ideas. There is universality about music which means that much of it is easy for everyone to understand. You don't have to be a musical expert for a piece of music to make you feel happy, or sad, or wistful.

Choosing the right music is vitally important. Much of the best music (for writing purposes) is instrumental. We don't want students to be distracted by

Once again, when stu
what they have written

- **How does it make me feel** write their reactions as they such as: 'What color do you would you like to have with y
- **Musical stories**- students conveys a strong atmosphe who to write.

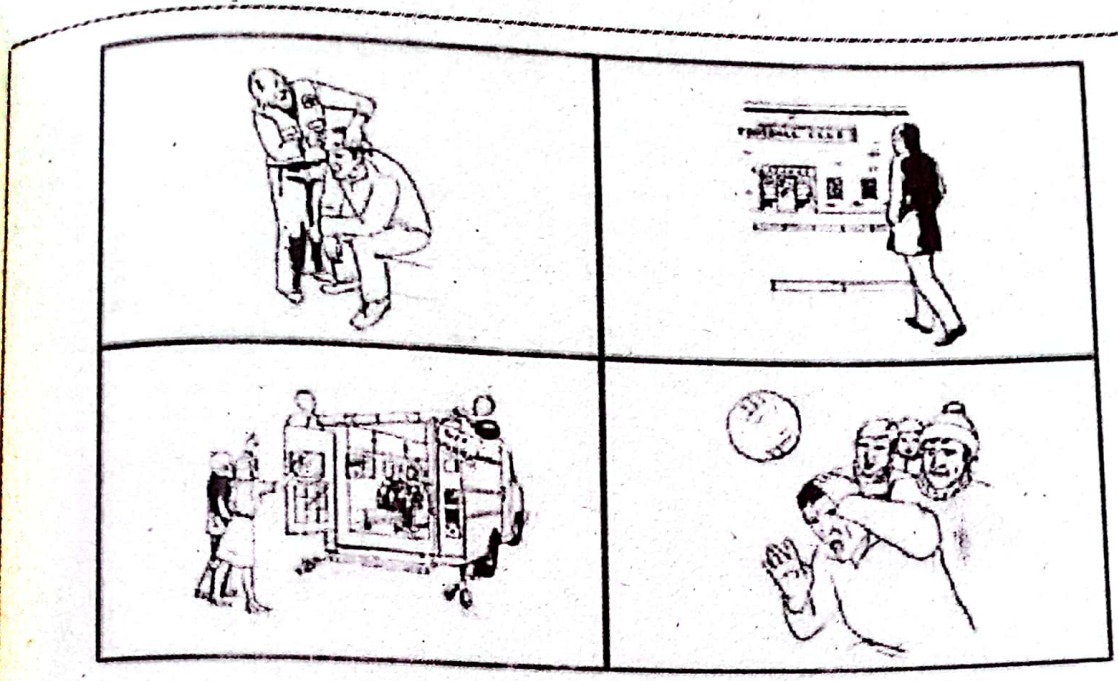
  One way of showing line of a story (e.g continue the story v then hear a piece example.

  When all students read out one of the

Teachers should use musical ac work best when they unusual-somethin them to provoke students' creativity. See

We need to be careful, also, not of an excerpt which lasts for between tw goes on for much longer than that.

Topic: 180: Collaborative W



The pictures are then taken away. Students are now regrouped so that each now has a student fror the original groups A, B, C, and D.

In their new groups students have to work out a sequence for the four pictures and then create a writte text which tells the story of that sequence.

This activity works well. It provokes a lot of discussion which, in turn, gets students to write wi enthusiasm.

It is worth pointing out that many of the earlier activities in this lesson could also be worked collaboratively with all the advantages we have suggested for such an approach. Nevertheless we will not wa all writing tasks to be collaborative. Individual students need individual space sometimes.

Topic: 182: Writing to Each Other

A further way of provoking student engagement with writing is to get students to write to each othe class time. They can also correspond with people to write to each other in class time. They can a correspond with people outside the class. Some writing, when done in this way, becomes genuir communicative and has a real purpose-even if it only gets going when a teacher sets the process in motion.

At its most basic level, such writing involves students writing notes to each other. The teacher can individual students to write a question to another student in a class. This can be anything from *where are from?* To *what do you find most difficult about learning English?* The note is addressed to another student the teacher delivers it.

Pen pals, e-mails, and live chat: teachers have always encouraged students to correspond with pals from different towns or countries. This is significantly easier and more immediate with e-mail excha between 'key pail' or 'mouse pals'.

Some teachers get in touch with classes from a school in a different country and, with their fo colleagues, instigate initial exchanges to get the ball rolling. Teachers in Japan, for example, might get English students to communicate with students of English in Colombia. They could start the process by g their students to think of five questions about Colombia (maybe addressing stereotypes) that they would l know the answer to. The Colombian students could do the same with questions about Japan. Alternatively could write e-mails about their lives or their families to start with.

Setting up a 'key pal' exchange system does not guarantee its success. Whereas one or two stu may really get the bug and continue to mail their opposite numbers, others will get bored by the whole unless, that is, the teacher monitors the procedure and helps with suggestions, comments, encouragement.

The 'key pal' system does need computer access, of course. But if necessary we can still simul mail exchanges on paper, using the same basic techniques as the exchange of notes that we start section with.

As with the fairy story earlier, the English in the simulated e-mails may not be especially correct, students participated with enthusiasm and found writing a congenial activity.

These crude proficiency ratings are presented only for illustrative purposes. As we sugg
chapter I, responsible treatment of learners' literacy skills requires attention to a wide range of in
sociocognitive and educational variables.

FIG. 3.1. Inventory of institutional and educational variables.

We make a distinction between immigrant and international students in this discussion b
immigrant students (some of whom may be the children of immigrants or immigrants themselves) m
permanent resident status. Meanwhile, international students usually enter English-speaking coun
student visas, complete their college or university studies, and subsequently return to their home countr

Further distinctions are to be made between students taking courses in intensive English pr
(IEPs) and their counterparts in traditional degree programs. Frequently, IEPs in anglophone settir
housed on college and university campuses, but may not award students college or university cours
(with the occasional exception of certain advanced-level courses). Many IEPs offer both acaden
nonacademic ESL courses for international students as well as immigrant learners. Academic-tra
courses often are geared toward providing students with the linguistic and academic skills they r
matriculate as regular students and to enter traditional degree programs (Gaskill, 1996). Nonac
courses, meanwhile, frequently serve international students who intend to spend a limited time in an E
speaking environment to improve their English proficiency and then to return to their home countries.
the teaching of ESL writing in IEP courses needs to be geared specifically toward students' educ
professional, and personal goals.

In many English-medium educational institutions, ESL students may be assessed and placed in
academic, basic, or "remedial" courses designed to bring their oral-aural and literacy skills to a level at
they can enroll in regular content courses with students who are native speakers (NS) of English (Braine,
DeLuca, Fox, Johnson, & Kogen, 2001; Harklau, Losey, & Siegel, 1999; Silva, Leki, & Carson,
Frequently, students assigned to these courses are identified as weak in specific skill areas and allo
take courses that count toward a degree or certificate only after they successfully pass these co
successfully pass an in-house language proficiency test, or achieve a specified score on the Test of Eng
a Foreign Language (TOEFL) or other criterion-referenced test.

The implications for the teaching of writing in these circumstances are clear. Instruction must f
students with the skills required to perform in subsequent ESL, "mainstream" English, and content cour
the disciplines, and for better or worse, to succeed on tests. In a number of institutions, successful comp
of these courses entitles students to make the transition from the ESL track to the regular or "native"
where no distinction is made between NNS and NS students, and where classes are made up of both le
types.

Other institutions, meanwhile, may offer ESL- or NNS-stream writing courses that parallel NS co
in terms of curriculum and assessment criteria. In principle, such courses are designed specifically with
learners' needs in mind and, like their mainstream counterparts, enable students to earn credit tow
degree. Instructors with ESL training or experience working with NNS writers often (and preferably)
courses designated for ESL students. In NNS-stream courses that parallel NS courses, instruction oft
determined largely by the mainstream curriculum and guided by the principles and techniques featur
equivalent courses. In some such cases, conflicts may arise between philosophies and approaches t
literacy tasks and writing processes that students must practice and master (Atkinson & Ramanathan, 1
Johns, 2003; Kroll, 2001; Silva et al, 1997).

Prior Educational Experience. In addition to the numerous factors influencing the extent and ty
writing instruction offered and required by schools, colleges, and universities, ESL students' formal educat
backgrounds also must be considered. The inventory of student variables shown in Fig. 3.1 includes two b
categories aimed at capturing this information: prior L1-medium educational experience and prior Eng
medium educational experience. For each of these categories, students' levels of education or years of fo
schooling offer only a rough index of students' experience and expertise as classroom learners, note-tal
discussion participants, readers, writers, test-takers, and so forth. Teachers of ESL need to bear in min
course, that their students' prior educational experiences might vary considerably from those provided by
ESL or EFL setting in which they currently are receiving instruction. Immigrant and international stud
pursuing an education in an English-medium institution, for example, may find that their prior training contr
considerably with the form of instruction embraced in the ESL and EFL courses they are offered. Educati
systems around the world vary widely in terms of approach, philosophy, and cultural orientation (Feag
997; Reagan, 1996). Anticipating and understanding learners' prior experiences can be tremendo
aluable to writing teachers, because many ESL students come from educational traditions in which sch
ased texts exemplify rhetorical patterns that are fundamentally distinct from those valued in Englishmed
iscourses and communities of practice (see chapters 1 and 2).

Moreover, in some non-Western educational models, writing processes may not be explicitly taug
fact, writing is even featured in the curriculum. Students trained in those traditions may sometimes v
mposing as incidental to the mastery of discipline-specific subject matter or enhancement of langu
oficiency (Leki, 2003). Such students may thus be unfamiliar (and possibly uncomfortable) with
merous ways in which texts and iterative composing processes are used and taught in English-medi
ademic settings (Corson, 2001; Duszak, 1997; Matsuda & Silva, 1999; Raimes, 1985,1998; Scollon, 19
ollon & Scollon, 1981).

On the basis of your experience as a student and as a teacher (if applicable), identify the hal classroom instruction and management.

The ESL/EFL writing class is perhaps best seen as a workshop for students to academic essays through mastering techniques for getting started and generating ideas, which they will anticipate revising, and learning to utilize feedback provided by the teacher a in the class to improve the writing assignment at hand. The goal of every course should be progress in writing proficiency, and the goal of the total curriculum should be that studer become informed and independent readers of their own texts with the ability to create, re papers to meet the needs of whatever writing tasks they are assigned. (Kroll, 2001, p. 223)

SYLLABUS DEVELOPMENT: PRINCIPLES AND PROCEDURES

In keeping with the principles so clearly outlined by Kroll (2001) in the preceding exc outlines a concrete yet flexible approach to planning instruction in ESL composition courses a for developing effective lessons. Rather than address global principles concerning the curricula, we concentrate chiefly on the day-to-day planning tasks of writing teachers: co syllabi, sequencing components of a writing cycle, and designing lessons.1 In the first sectio needs assessment process in detail, because understanding the unique characteristics essential to shaping effective L2 composition instruction.

NEEDS ASSESSMENT: A TOOL FOR SYLLABUS DESIGN

In broad terms, needs assessment consists of "procedures for identifying and valid establishing priorities among them" (Pratt, 1980, p. 79). Because of the particular expertise writing to non-native speakers (NNSs) of English, we need a systematic way of inquiring background features, skills, schemata, and expectations of ESL writers so we can take this account when planning instruction (Benesch, 1996; Johns & Price-Machado, 2001; Spack, 1 some of this information (e.g., institution type, students' target disciplines, their immigration s to teachers and requires no data collection.

Specific demographic and proficiency-related characteristics of the learner populatio are available only by eliciting specific information directly from the students themselves ar institutional authorities. Although other effective needs analysis tools exist (Brown, 1995; Du John, 1998; Graves, 2000; Reid, 1995a), we concentrate in this chapter on those that are e practical to administer, and simple to analyze in the context of an individual program o questionnaires, informal interviews, and ongoing observation. Instead of presenting a static survey or interview format, we offer the variables in Fig. 3.1 and the explanations that follov consider in constructing needs analysis instruments tailored to your learner population, instituti teaching style.

Topic: 185: Understanding the Learner Population

Understanding the Learner Population

Figure 3.1 provides a general starting point for identifying students' instructional questing information about factors known to influence the effectiveness of L2 composition formation should ultimately be used to design course syllabi and classroom tasks.

Institution Type. For the same reasons that we should not make pedagogical d considering the diversity of learners in our classrooms, we should be mindful of the types of stu the research literature (Browning, 1996; Graves, 2000; Nieto, 2002; Silva, 1993). One of th haracteristics to consider is the type of institution in which students receive their English-langu can generally assume, for example, that college- and university-level ESL writers perience with English and have developed more extensive academic literacy skills than h ters, simply by virtue of the length of their exposure to the language through formal scho stsecondary students, by virtue of having elected to continue their studies beyond compu ucation, may have varied educational and career goals in mind.

Even within postsecondary institutions, we also find diverse types of students. Studer versities enrolled in EFL writing courses, for instance, may have received little or no prepar English, despite continuous study of English throughout secondary school. Meanwhile, dents, particularly those who have studied in English-medium institutions at home or abr versity EFL writing courses with rather extensive experience as writers of English. In the l text, high schools and community colleges often serve a high proportion of immigrant stude geographic location. In contrast, four-year colleges and research universities may attract a ternational students. Many North American fouryear and research institutions maintain stea oth types of student, although it is common for institutions in some areas to be domir migrant or international students with nonpermanent resident status. Community colleges oft bers of immigrant students because these institutions offer low-cost education and o ents to transfer to four-year colleges and research universities upon completion of b irements (Ching, McKee, & Ford, 1996).

tution type

For many other immigrant students, however, achieving bilingualism and biliteracy can be co more difficult and frustrating. Those with strong ties to a cohesive ethnic and linguistic community English is seldom or never used may find that the school, college, or university campus may be the in their daily lives where English is the primary medium of communication (August & Hakuta, 1997; 1995). Consequently, such immigrant learners may have limited opportunities to use English for other than those directly related to formal education and may therefore require substantial instruction to compensate for these limitations. International ESL students enrolled in colleges, universities, frequently report an analogous sense of social and linguistic isolation from English-speaking student wider community, often because both international and immigrant students may tend to socialize solidarity with peers from the same linguistic and sociocultural background. A result of this tenden ESL students may use their primary languages in their social interactions nearly everywhere educational setting.

This dualistic situation can pose problems of a slightly different nature for immigrant student international students. Immigrant students are faced with having to use English not only to comp formal studies, but also to seek and secure employment, and to pursue careers and livelihoods in ar speaking workplace. Many immigrant students also perform the difficult role of interpreter and trar parents and extended families with severely limited English language skills. Moreover, the m immigrant students enrolled in educational institutions often struggle with economic and social hards their international peers may never experience. Many international students, for example, co developed nations and have the economic resources to cover the cost of their foreign study, t government sponsorships, family resources, or both. Immigration laws in most host countries, in fac student visa holders to demonstrate proof that they possess these financial means and that full-tim status is maintained throughout their course of study.

The circumstances of many (perhaps even most) immigrant students contrast sharply with international students. Because of the need to contribute financially to their family incomes or to families of their own, immigrant learners enrolled in ESL programs at all levels of education may hol full-time jobs. These financial and family-related obligations may place heavy demands on ESL stud whom educational achievement may also be a palpably strong social value in their home commun only may resident students face ever-present financial and educational pressures and hardships; t likewise confront problems associated with being members of ethnolinguistic minority communities th enjoy equal, let alone privileged, social status with respect to dominant (anglophone) cultures and Disc

These divergent experiences clearly set resident student populations apart from internationa populations and suggest the need for ESL teachers to adjust pedagogical assumptions accordin content and assignments in a writing course designed for international students may be largely inap for immigrant students. Consider, for example, a syllabus in which North American culture and literatu as core content, in conjunction with writing tasks that involve students in making comparisons betv cultural practices of the target culture and the home culture. Whereas such a curriculum would probab the needs of newcomers to an Englishmedium cultural and educational environment, it would be of relevance to ESL students who have lived and studied in the United States for quite some time, and fo the "home country" is a distant memory. Recognizing and understanding the current personal, soc economic conditions of immigrant and international students can help ESL teachers develop a sensitivi constraints that their students must overcome in their efforts to improve their linguistic and academ including their composing proficiency (Valdes, 1992,2000).

Traditional and Nontraditional Students. An additional factor that frequently is overlooked nfluence the character of learning and teaching in a given ESL setting has to do with learners' statu called "traditional" or "nontraditional" students. Traditional students (both NS and NNS) are sor lescribed as such if they have experienced few if any interruptions in their progress from secondary s and through) postsecondary education. That is, traditional students are those who upon compl econdary school proceed directly to a community college, four-year college, or research university, a here, perhaps to a graduate or professional program. Because of this rapid progress from a second ostsecondary institution, traditional students usually are young adults in their late teens or early t hen they begin their postsecondary education.

Nontraditional or "returning" students, on the other hand, may have experienced one c erruptions along their educational pathways. These interruptions can include substantial periods of nployment (and sometimes the pursuit of a new career); as well as considerable time devoted to ca ildren, elderly family members, or both. These students, whose numbers are increasing rapidly i ucational institutions, thus represent a variety of age groups (Peterson, 1995; Stewart, 1993). Mc ny nontraditional students reinitiate their formal studies while working and may likewise have pe ncial, and family commitments to fulfill.

These circumstances can sometimes have a direct and obvious impact on students' partic ivation, confidence level, and performance in a composition course. Consider, for example, a re migrant student who undertakes part-time coursework toward an undergraduate degree after cessfully completed her ESL composition requirements 10 years before. Such a student may have c turn to college for compelling personal or economic reasons, such as no longer having young chil for, coupled with a desire to pursue a career outside the home. A student in this situation rstandably need special assistance and guidance in readjusting to the academic environment. It m time for her to reactivate literacy skills that have not been practiced in a long time. With a sensi

	data and work/ school experienc • Compose paraphrases and sum of extended academic prose (up to 10 pages in length). • Compose descriptive, narrativ expository essayiength texts (up words in length).
College/University ESL: Advanced (N5-track equivalent)	• Take detailed notes on famil unfamiliar topics. • Respond in connected written p text-based content questions. • Compose summaries of statisti graphic data. • Compose paraphrases and sur of extended academic or t discourse (texts of up to 20 p length]. • Compose descriptive, expos analytic, and argumentative 1,500 words or more.

FIG. 3.3. Sample course objectives: ESL writing skills.

Objectives is allowed to diverge" (p. 95). The explicit presentation of instructiona syllabus enables teachers to

1. transform student needs into teaching points that can be organized into a teachi
2. identify for students target skills that underlie Instructional points
3. decide on the level of specificity for the teaching activities in the syllabus
4. Adopt or adapt teaching materials that appropriately accommodate student neec
5. Map out a blueprint for assessing student performance and progress
6. Evaluate their own teaching effectiveness (Frodesen, 1995; Graves, 2000; Richa

Topic: 187: Nuts and Bolts of L2 Writing Syllabus

Conducting a needs assessment can be an informative and rewarding p development and establishment of clear, measurable, and achievable course objective their operationalization, of course, need to be formalized in writing on the course syllab

It is useful to think of a course syllabus as a document comprising two main pa a contract between the instructor and the students, summarizing course objectives a (Hafernik, Messerschmitt, & Vandrick, 2002; Kroll, 2001). Second, a syllabus se framework and planning tool. It structures and sequences instructional aims, units classroom procedures, and assessment procedures for both the instructor and the Nunan, 1991a, 2001). The checklist in Fig. 3.4, although not exhaustive, offers a students with all the information they will need about course objectives and content requirements, policies, assignments, and performance expectations. Figure. 3.4 alsc organizer for the discussion in the sections that follow. A sample syllabus for a commu course appears in Appendix 3A to exemplify the principles and practices outlined in thi

THE COURSE SCHEDULE: PRIORITIZING, SEQUENCING, AND PLANNING FOR \

Laying out a sequence of reading materials, classroom activities, and assign most challenging tasks facing novice and even experienced classroom teachers. B techniques for meeting these challenges, we offer some guiding principles to assist writing a syllabus and course outline. Figure 3.5 presents an overarching schem procedures for incorporating overlapping phases of a hypothetical composing seque (see chapter 1). We point out that the stages leading from prewriting through publis autonomous steps, but potentially overlapping and recursive phases and subpr Hillocks (1995) persuasively argued that conventional approaches to implementing s of composition instruction should be viewed with extreme caution, as we sugges process and postprocess pedagogies in chapter 1. "While the general model of th useful," wrote Hillocks (1995), "it cannot begin to account for variations in process tha on a variety of factors" (p. xix). Therefore, we wish to avoid trivializing the comple evolving composing processes. We thus present the model in Fig. 3.5 not as a linea as a general guideline for structuring and sequencing classroom tasks and multiple range of instructional contexts and student writer populations.

1. Descriptive Information

- Course name, number, meeting lime, and location
- Prerequisites and other requirements

- To prepare for and complement intensive writing (i.e.. drafting and revising formal writing assignmer allow for extensive writing for discovery \Elbow. 1973, l9fl1b; Wurray, 1978, 1937-Tarrers. 1993; Zar 19B2, 19fl3.1985), both in class and out; promote production of texts that address the tasks, audie and genres at hand (Johns, 1997, 2QQ3; Kroll, 2001).
- Without letting prewriting take on a life of its own, weave idea generation tasks such as brainstorm mapping. cut-inn, and so on into the Instructional sequence (see chapter 4). Practice and a varie prewriting activities (see chapter 4).

lanning and Drafting

- Encourage students to plan as they BO along and to understand the evolving purposes of their writ
- Continue to supply content- and theme-based input in the way of readings, discussions, and so fo develop and sharpen. students' emerging ideas and plans,
- Allow sufficient time in the drafting and planning phase for students to exchange ideas, share plans, and elicit new Information for further development of a schema for the writing task.

Rewriting and Revising

- Situate writing tasks in a transactional space Give students practice envisioning the text's audienc reader's knowledge and expectations, strategies for satisfying reader expectations, and so on (Ac Arterneva, 2002, Carson, 2001; Hanseri, 2000; Horawitz, l936c; Johns, 1997, 2003;Spack, 1997a)
- Provide students with practice incorporating peer and expert feedback into their evolving draf chapters 5 and 6).
- Continue to supply content- and theme-based input in the way of readings, discussions, and so supplement and narrow students' emerging ideas and plans.

edback, Incubation, and Revision

- Demonstrate productive and supportive ways in which students can respond to the writing of thei (see chapter 6|.
- Conduct peer response seniors In a safe environment where students act as critical readers, but evaluators (see chapter 6).
- Emphasize the benefits of reading and responding to the work of others. Point out that the g contribution of peer feedback may not be to the work of the writer who receives feedback, bu work of the peer reviewer who gives feedback.
- Demonstrate procedures and techniques (or evaluating peer and expert feedback, and for apply information to students' changing drafts.
- Build in time for incubation between Iterations of the composing subprocess. As Zamel's (1982) said, the more days 50 by, the more ideas come. It's like fruit; it needs time to ripen (pp. 200-20

ting and Pollshinsg

- Build sufficient time into the teaching sequence for peer, teacher, and self-editing of mature, de pieces of writing (see chapters 5, 6, and 7;

llishing

- Provide opportunities for students" "final" products to be distributed shared, and appreciated by
- Systematically engage students in making decisions regarding written products that should be in their writing portfolios (If applicable).

FIG. 3.5. Writing process schema for course planning.

With these general planning precepts in mind, we can begin to lay out the work of a quarter or the goals of our institutions and our students (as operationalized in our course objectives) surable targets. It is useful to start the process with an academic calendar or planner showing ber of class meetings and holidays to be included in the timetable. Cancellations because of per essional commitments should then be noted, and any required makeup meetings should be bu dule. Class days also should be reserved for timed writings, midterms, examinations, and the lik picture of exactly how many meetings can be planned for teaching, workshops, feedback ses n.

We further suggest designating one or two sessions per term as "free" or "flex" (flexible) ses emic calendar permits. Flex sessions can provide highly valuable padding that allows the teach units, tasks, and assignments without having to rework the entire course timetable when a id schedule, as many inevitably do. If the course proceeds as planned, flex sessions can then b writing time, teacher-student conferences, portfolio preparation, and even working ahead.

Next, it is a good idea to schedule due dates for graded writing assignments, particula lines are prescribed by the program, department, or institution. We recommend working bac submission deadlines to include intermediate deadlines for drafts, peer feedback sessio shops, student-teacher conferences, and so forth. The sample syllabus and course outline in A ates one way in which this "backtracking" planning method can be used. We recommen uate time for multidraft assignments and revised papers, particularly near the beginning of a g assignments tend to take longer to work through. Extra class periods may be necessary

discuss preliminary drafts, demonstrate and practice peer response techniques, and revise assig class or in the computer lab.

You will likewise find it valuable to build into the course timetable sufficient time for you students to read assigned texts, practice prewriting and drafting techniques, and work through peer tasks. The timetable should also allow sufficient time for you to annotate and evaluate your students' chapters 5, 6, 7, and 8). Allow as much time between sessions as practicable to make a multidraft worthwhile if multidrafting is a central feature of your course.

To maximize the multidrafting approach and provide sufficient incubation time between drafts useful to initiate a new writing assignment while the preceding one is still in progress. For example time efficient to collect a set of short papers for feedback or evaluation while students embark on a project or research assignment.

Once the core assignments are in place and the deadlines for preliminary work (readings, and teacher feedback, revision, and so on) are established, the course outline has at least a skeleta allows for the planning of discussions, lectures, student presentations, peer response workshops, or quizzes, and other class activities. If reading figures prominently in the course objectives (as v suggest it should), reading selections should be assigned with great care so that they correspond the themes, genres, rhetorical patterns, and discursive forms to be featured in the syllabus, as writing assignments and literacy tasks based on them (Johns, 1997; Kroll, 2001). Generally, reading in published anthologies and rhetorical readers (see chapter 4) are presented as units, linked to connected to specific writing tasks (e.g., expository or argumentative essays).

Examples of themes included in recent ESL and NS composition textbooks include affirma educational policy, environmental controversies, gender issues, globalization, human sexuality, ir language rights, multiculturalism, racism, and reproductive rights. Where such textbooks are not curriculum, a thematic approach still may be used as the basis for syllabus design, with a th revolving around an identifiable topic or context (Snow, 1998, 2001; Snow & Brinton, 1997). As assignments, reading assignments should be allotted generous time. Lengthy reading selections m be divided into smaller parts to enable students to complete them and to provide for effective t class. Finally, lay your plan out so that you and the students can see the chronology of the entire te finalizing the course schedule, check to see that adequate time has been allocated for espec intensive literacy tasks such as extended reading selections, multi-draft writing assignments, and ir projects. For multidraft assignments, track the sequence you have sketched out to ensure enough necessary iterations of drafting, feedback, revision, and editing (Kroll, 2001).

Topic: 188: Lesson Planning: Practices and Procedures

Identifying Lesson Objectives

In the same way that the instructional objectives specified in a syllabus identify what kno skills students will acquire by the end of a course, effective lesson objectives describe the behaviors that students will demonstrate at the end of a class period or unit (Brown, 2001; Jer Nunan, 2001; Raimes, 1983). If instructional objectives are clearly specified in the syllabus, identif objectives should be an easy task when it comes to planning individual class periods. Lesson objec emanate directly from instructional objectives and at least indirectly from program or course goals for example, this instructional objective for a low to low-intermediate, pre-academic ESL writing Fig. 3.3: "Compose descriptive, narrative, and expository paragraphs." A corresponding performati for a lesson derived from this course aim might read "Compose a 200- to 250-word paragraph desc writer's dormitory room, apartment, or house." The anticipated outcome is described in terms of an measurable student performance as well as a written product with which students can work a ultimately be published, shared, and evaluated. The objective statement also should be worded verbs such as "compose" and "describe" (in contrast to verbs such as "learn" or "understand," difficult to observe and appraise).

Although many experienced and skilled teachers plan and execute productive lessons wit out their objectives in detail, effective teachers do have a clear purpose in mind when they select a classroom tasks. As Purgason (1991) pointed out, "each activity needs to have a reason. A teache through why that activity is important to the students and what they will be able to do when they 423). Consequently, it is advisable for both novice and experienced teachers to articulate lesso routinely in their planning (Brown, 2001; Cruickshank, Balner, & Metcalf, 1999; Graves, 2000 Explicit, measurable objectives help teachers to unify the components of their lessons:

In synthetic terms, lessons and units of work will consist, among other things, of sequenc and the coherence of such lessons or units will depend on the extent to which the tasks have bee and sequenced in some principled way. (Nunan, 1989, p. 10)

Sequencing and Organizing a Lesson Plan

A lesson plan can take many forms, depending on the time constraints and personal individual teacher. Regardless of how it appears, a lesson plan should provide the teacher with presenting materials, interacting with students, and leading students through structured and activities. Much more than a mere step-by-step chronology of a classroom event, however, a less

practical, tangible, and potentially dynamic tool for meeting student needs as operationalized in objectives. It serves as a vital link between curricular goals and the learning we wish to bring about amo students. In this sense, the lesson is where the known (instructional objectives, texts, and so on) me unknown (the novice writers in our composition classes).

Hillocks (1995) noted that mapping out instruction is initially an exploratory endeavor: "At the be of a year or term, our students are likely to be new to us. We cannot begin planning, except with outlines, until we know what students do as writers" (p. 132). Because we cannot possibly anticipat aspect of what happens in our classrooms, we can think of lessons as opportunities for experimentat all lessons or activities will succeed. We can be prepared for this outcome, however, by expec unexpected. We also can improve our teaching effectiveness by reflecting on what works well and wh not work so successfully with the students in our own classes (Bailey, Curtis, & Nunan, 2001; Bailey & 1996; Richards & Lockhart, 1994).

Hillocks (1995) offered sound planning advice in noting that "the thoughtful teacher, in sear ways to help students learn more effectively, will plan real trials (what researchers call quasi-expe determine what effect they have, even as the trial goes forward, and consider new options as a result" Most teachers, even those seasoned and self-assured enough to conduct entire lessons with no writt are aware of the benefits of advance planning, which can lead to a willingness to depart from their pl necessary (Bailey, 1996). A written lesson plan, whether a general list of activities or a meticulousl sequence of procedures, facilitates processes such as postlesson evaluation, problem diagnosis, enhancement.

Topic: 189: Mechanics of Lesson Planning

In purely mechanical terms, a lesson plan can be handwritten or word-processed on stan and formatted in any number of ways. Teachers working in highly "wired" environments can even pr class plans using interactive software such as Microsoft PowerPoint, enabling them to project o materials onto a screen or an array of monitors. In contrast, a lowtech lesson plan can easily be pri notecards. In fact, for some teachers, it is enough to write out lesson notes before class as a way of content and sequencing into their heads. In this way, they obviate the need for a written plan during

Whatever form a lesson plan takes, it should be readable, convenient to refer to in class when r usable as a future record of what took place. Instead of proposing a rigid or prescriptive model ESL writing classes, we offer the following general outline and conceptual framework as individualizing daily lesson designs.5 The outline in Fig. 3.6 includes practical and procedural as planning process that many teachers consider essential in constructing a lesson. Appendix 3B example of an authentic lesson plan that reflects these principles, procedures, and formatting op 3.6 focuses principally on logistical elements, whereas Fig. 3.7 focuses on pedagogical instructional procedures.

Although most of the items in Fig. 3.6 are self-explanatory, a few are worth elaboration. In additio the lesson's objectives, making a note about the work that students did during the previous cl done for homework can give us a realistic feeling for what kinds of reading, writing, discussion solving tasks students are ready for next. This review process is invaluable in managing tir Preparing a list of equipment (e.g., overhead projector, transparencies, markers), materials, p and so on before class can avert the need to spend valuable class time getting organized. Havi checklist of student work to return and collect can likewise save time, as can dispensing with a efficiently. Some teachers routinely write these on the board or an overhead transparency for st on their own. Others prefer to make announcements at the end of class, when they will r repeated for latecomers. On an increasing number of campuses, instructors can also pos messages on electronic bulletin boards or conferences dedicated to courses.

Course and Lesson Objectives

- Summary of lesson objectives

Work Previously Completed

- Account of reading, writing, discussion, and feedback completed in the previous class s

Materials

- Textbook(s)
- Handouts, including worksheets, feedback guides, copies of student writing, and so fo
- Materials for student writing, including writing paper, blue books for inclass writing, sessions conducted in computer labs, and so on
- AV materials (e.g., OHP transparencies, video player, laptop, computer projection uni

Class Management

- Assignments to be collected
- Assignments to be given and examined before the next class meeting a
- Class business, announcements, reminders, and so on

...social sci... ...borrowing content from suc...
...examining culture, identity, and language. Then a lot of the ... personal responses to the authentic a...
...se the dust too. Although graduate curses might address specific genres as the focus of i...
...mbers of ESL and EFL writing courses, language learning rather than forms of written di...
...sideration. So students need topics that allow them to generate ideas, find the forms t...
...e risk taking.

Topic: 194: Weighting the Elements

...portant for a course: content, organization, originality, style, fluency, accuracy, or using a...
...ms of discourse. Obviously, unless a course lasts for years, we will not be able to do all ...
...ve to form priorities and weight the elements according to students' needs and our own p...

...ractice. I would have students write dozens of sentences about John and Mary (and the ...
...ey led) and eventually, with the advent of controlled and guided compositions, moved ...
...em write paragraphs, but they were still working with content that was already pro...
...agraphs, but they were still working with content that was already provided for ther...
...me the idea that writing is generative of ideas, that it is a messy and chaotic ...
...etoricians frequently graphically present a piece of writing in English as a straight line, ...
...the product, not the process. There are, unfortunately, not neat formulas for getting ...
...oduct, one step at a time. Giving instruction in writing is not like giving instructions for ...
...ail-order computer. It is not simply a question of getting the right tools and following ...
...ore people would be good writers, and more teachers and textbook writers would b...
...cept the chaotic and messy nature of writing-but teachers do not like chaos, so they h...
...rder on it by focusing on grammar, rhetorical modes, and models of academic ...
...emselves with neat systems to teach.

It is helpful to do a needs analysis on the first day, balancing institutional goals ...
...they need to learn and what they need to use writing for; then we can weigh the eleme...
...composing is somewhat reduced for the students, since they can focus on one or two th...
...courses usually address a theme-culture and identity, or education, for example- and...
...within each task, students focus on critical reading, generating ideas and expres...
...organization, style, and accuracy. My students know what I see learning to write a lab ...
...physics class, not in an ESL class.

Topic: 195: Drawing up a Syllabus

The next question we ask after deciding on content and weighting the elem...
...content and the learning experiences in the classroom. In *The Language Teaching Ma...*
...the kinds of syllabi commonly found in speaking and listening courses in ESL. I will ad...
...syllabus organization for writing courses, from the traditional to the more current an...
...overlap:

1. **Structural**: writing courses, particularly at beginning levels, can be organized ...
   ...sentence patterns. A present tense paragraph one day, then a past tense p...
   ...was common in the 1960s, but is less so now. Structural courses nowada...
   ...patterns of writing forms or genres: paragraphs with topic sentence, descripti...
2. **Functional**: writing courses can be organized around rhetorical activities ...
   ...writing autobiography, comparing and contrasting, classifying, defining, expla...
   ...or supporting a thesis with examples, illustrations, and other evidence.
3. **Topical**: a writing course can be organized around themes, such as hou...
   ...abstraction such as success or courage. In the United States, ESL writing ...
   ...linked with a content course. At Hunter College in New York, students in ...
   ...course are also enrolled in "The Greek and Latin Roots of English" and n...
   ...course are examined in more linguistic detail in the ESL course.
4. **Situational**: writing courses can be organized around situational transact...
   ...job, complaining to a landlord, and writing letters to the newspaper, writing ...
   ...essays to pass a course.

- We can make only a part of our course address the test or the assigned curriculum.
- We can avoid seeing ends as means. If a student has to learn how to write an essay in 30 prescribed topic, that does not mean that the whole course should consist of 30-minute The ends dictate only the destination, not how we get there. We need to find ways to en vary our means of working toward the prescribed ends.

Topic: 192: Deciding on Theoretical Principles

Articles by Santos(1992), Mckay (1993), and Benesch(1993) have discussed the role o teaching writing. Terry Santos tells us that ESL composition "see[s] itself pragmatically" an classroom I teach English and there's no ideology in that." But Sarah Benesch points out that "all instruction are ideological, whether or not educators are conscious of the political implicat instructional choices" (1993, p.705). She illustrates this with an analysis of English for acader (EAP). She point out that in its attempts "to adapt students to the status quo" (p.714) by pr demands of literacy as "positive artifacts of a normative academic culture" (p. 710), EAP turns acocommodationist ideology" (p. 714), which prepares students to be assimilated into systems th never question and that their students never examine critically. She claims, then, that all writing is

So teachers first need to confront their ideological position and recognize their percep relationship between the type of writing they teach and the roles they are preparing students for and the wider world of work. The question of ideology and who determines what is taught is a power and reflects local conditions. In the United states, teaching writing to immigrants and re issues of assimilation and accommodation which are obviously different from issues raised by t writing in other parts of the world. Suresh Canagarajah discusses this in relation to Sri Lanka Quarterly article (1993). It is important for all of us to ask ourselves what English and what types teach, what content our students are exposed to, and what we accept our students to do with wha What roles in society does our instruction prepare them for? How specific are the specific ESP(English for specific purposes), socioecnomically and politically?

Then, closely allied to ideology comes theory and our views of language, the nature learning, writing, and the nature of the learning of composition. Even if we never articulate ou ourselves, they become apparent to others in our syllabus and choice of materials and activities. two examples of writing-class decisions: the use of text models and the choice of focus on content

What are text models used for? Are they to be imitated or examined critically, an compared? Fan Shen (1989) from the People's Republic of China has written about his experie English composition in the United states. He says that in Chinese, writers try to "reach a topic g systematically." To him, the concept of a topic sentence stating the main idea of a paragraph ri front is "symbolic of the values of a busy people in an industrialized society" (p.462). As teachers, choice of presenting a text structure as a given, as some kind of "standard," as a form to be imitated, or going beyond that and exploring in our classes the notion that what writers do reflec system of values and beliefs, with strong connections between the writing process and the beliefs Sandra McKay claims that we need to examine the "social practices that surround academic disco p.74), and we can do that by discussing openly in our classes the differences in approaches to reading and critically examining the text forms that appear in our textbooks and curricular guides.

Another example of a writing-class decision that has clear links to theory is the choice ontent or form. A commitment to content, fluency, personal voice, and revising is often called *pro* But since all writing involves a process, whether teachers focus on it or not, I prefer to call thi pproach to teaching writing and to emphasize that when we pay attention to how a piece onstructed, this is not necessarily at the expense of attention to the product. In addition, a proce not the same as an expressionist approach, focusing only on personal writing. A process eaching writing can be used with personal and with academic content, with literature and with no a process approach, of course the product and accuracy and grammar are important-they are st and only thing that is important. A principles process approach always pays serious atte oduct-but at an appropriate stage in the process.

So what we decide to emphasize in the classroom is not just a practical matter of choosin fill the next day's lesson plan. Principled teaching will always reveal principled theoretical under tect these, I always ask the teachers in my teacher-training courses to ask themselves th estions: Why am I doing this activity in my class? How does it fit into what I know about la nguage leaning? What will my students learn from it? What is it worth learning for?

pic: 193: Planning Content

There's a healthy controversy about what the content of writing classes should be, and teac all of the following: personal experience, social issues, cultural issues, literature, or the cont ject areas. There is no one right answer to the question of content, but I will go so far as to say wrong answer. That wrong answer is that the content of a writing course takes a back seat to scribed models of paragraph or essay form; that is, that it does not matter what you write about forms to an accepted rhetorical model. Why is that wrong? Because it misses the point about u unique tool for language learning. It returns to an early view of writing as one (and the least in our language skills to be used to test that the others skills has been mastered. It neglects the r

Teachers use sentence tests and essay tests to evaluate student's progress. They
these tests in addition to questionnaires and their own reflective logs to evaluate their own su
teachers. One form of evaluation that is becoming increasingly popular in writing course actually
combine student evaluation and course evaluation: the use of portfolios. All semester students
multiple drafts of their writing, which are guided by their instructor but not graded. At the end, they se
or four specified types of writing to include in the portfolio, both in-class writing and revised work. Th
cover letter assessing their work and their progress and what they have learned in the course. The p
then evaluated by another instructor in the program, who assigns a grade. So the original instructor
not evaluator. These portfolios lead assigns a grade. So the original instructor is coach, not evaluat
portfolio lead students to want to revise, to present their best work. They also provide a valuabl
teacher-training tool, since teachers continually discuss appropriate assignments and qualities of a
and student writing-a salutary lesson.

Probably, enough problematic considerations about planning a writing course been present
you food for thought for a while. But let's round off our steps one last, vital step.

Topic: 200: Reflecting the Teacher's Experience

Goals, theories, content, focus, syllabus, materials, activities, feedback, and course eva
substantive matters that we have to address whenever we design a writing course, but they
insignificance beside one thing: ourselves and our experience. In fact, we should begin-not en
Teachers do not always consider themselves researchers. But any teacher who ponders why o
activity works and another does not, any teacher who tests out a new approach and notes its e
researcher, theorist, and practitioner-a busy person. We need to have confidence in what is calle
"the wisdom of practice" (Shulman, 1987, p.11) or "a teacher's sense of plausibility about teachin
1990, p.172). The best way for teacher to record this sense this sense of plausibility and anal
course, through writing. A key component of any teacher-training course should therefore be
amount of writing: reflective teaching logs, reports, essays, research papers, and responses to oth
and students' writing, with the hope that teacher in writing courses will then write along with their s
present their own writing for discussion. That way, we will along with their students and preser
writing for discussion. That way, we will keep in the forefront what we and our students learn and
as we work together, and we will let that set the framework for the other nine steps in planning a wr

Topic: 201: Planning

Planning (Pre-writing):

Pre-writing is any activity in the classroom that encourages students to write. It stimulates
getting started. In fact, it moves students away from having to face a blank page toward generat
ideas and gathering information for writing. The following activities provide the learning exp
students at this stage:

Group Brainstorming:

Group members spew out ideas about the topic. Spontaneity is important here. There i
wrong answers. Students may cover familiar ground first and then move off to more abstract or wil

Clustering:

Students from words related to a stimulus supplied by the teacher. The words are circ
linked by lines to show discernible cluster. Clustering is a simple yet powerful strategy: "Its vis
seems to stimulate the flow of association... and is particularly good for students who know wha
say but just can't say it" (Proett & Gill, 1986, p.6)

Rapid Free Writing:

Within a limited time of 1 and 2 minutes, individual students freely and quickly write down
and phrases about a topic. The time limit keeps the writer's minds ticking and thinking fast. Rapid
done when group brainstorming is not possible or because the personal nature of a certain to
different strategy.

WH-Question:

Students generate *who, why, what, where, when and how* question about a topic. More
can be asked of answers to the first string of *wh-questions*, and so on. This can go on indefinitely

In addition, ideas for writing can be elicited from multimedia sources (e.g. printed material, vi
well as from direct interviews, talks, surveys, and questionnaires.

Students will be more motivated to write when given a variety of means for gathering inf
pre-writing.

Topic: 202: Drafting

One sufficient ideas are gathered at the planning stage, the first attempt at writing-that is, drafting proceed quickly. At the drafting stage, the writers are focused on the fluency of writing and are not preocc with grammatical accuracy or the neatness of the draft. One dimension of good writing is the writer's abi visualize an audience. Although writing in the classroom is almost always for the teacher, the students also be encouraged to write for different audience, among who are peers, other classmates, pen-friend family members. A conscious sense of audience can dictate a certain style to be used. Students shoul have in mind a central idea that they want to communicate to the audience in order to give direction t writing.

Depending on the genre of writing (narrative, expository or argumentative), an introduction subject of writing may be a startling statement to arrest the reader's attention, a short summary of the the writing, an apt quotation, a provocative question, a general statement, an analogy, a statement of pu and so on. Such a strategy may provide the lead at the drafting stage. Once a start is made, the writing simplified 'as the writers let go and disappear into the act of writing' (D'Aoust 1986, p.7).

Topic: 203: Responding and Revising

Responding

Responding to student writing by the teacher (or by peers) has a central role to play in the suc implementation of process writing. Responding intervenes between drafting and revising. It is the te quick initial reaction to student's drafts. Response can be oral or in writing, after the students have p the first draft and just before they proceed to revise. The failure of many writing programs in schools to be ascribed to the fact that responding is done in the final stage when the teacher simultaneously r and evaluates, and even edits students' finished texts, thus giving students the impression that nothi needs to be done.

Text-specific responses in the form of helpful suggestions and questions rather than 'rubber-s comments (such as 'organization is OK', 'ideas are too vague' etc.) by the teacher will help students re meanings and facilitate the revision of initial drafts. Such responses may be provided in the margin, sentence lines or at the end of students' texts. Peer responding can be effectively carried out b students respond to each other's texts in small groups or in pairs, with the aid of the checklist in (adapted from Reinking & Hart, 1991).

Revising:

When students revise, they review their texts on the basis of the feedback given in the re stage. They reexamine what was written to see how effectively they have communicated their meani reader. Revising is not merely checking for language errors (i.e., editing). It is done to improve glob and the organization of ideas so that the writer's intent is made clearer to the reader.

Table 1. PEER RESPONDING CHECKLIST
When responding to your peer's draft, ask yourself these questions:
What is the greatest strength of this composition?
What is its greatest weakness?
What is the central idea of this composition?
Which are the ideas which need more elaboration?
Where more details or examples should be added? Why?
What are some of the questions that the writer has not answered?
At which point does this composition fail to hold the reader's interest? Why?
Where is the organization confusion?
Where is the writing unclear or vague?

To ensure that rewriting does not mean recopying, Beck (1986, p.149) suggests that the tea and keep the students' drafts and ask them for rewrites. 'When the students are forced to act v original drafts, they become more familiar with their purposes and their unique messages... The v more ably within their topics, and their writing develops tones of confidence and authority'.

Another activity for revising may have the students working in pairs to read aloud each o before they revise. As students listen intently to their own writing, they are brought to a more consc rethinking and reseeing what they have written. Meanings which are vague become more appare writers actually hear their own texts read out to them. Revision often becomes more voluntary an An alternative to this would be to have individual students read their own texts into a tape recorde dictation of their own writing later. Students can replay the tape as often as necessary and activa button at points where they need to make productive revision of their texts.

Topic: 204: Editing II

At this stage, students are engaged in tidying up their texts as they prepare the final draft by the teacher. They edit their own or their peer's work for grammar, spelling, punctuation, dict structure and accuracy of supportive textual material such as quotations, examples and the like. I is deferred till this phase in order that its application not disrupts the free flow of ideas during th revising stages.

Exploiting the Use of Computers in Process Writing:

Many word-processing programs are user-friendly enough for students to handle. Their c application to process writing, especially for the purposes of drafting, revising and editing, is rewarding for the teacher and the students. The teacher can teach responding or editing skills via the computers hooke to an overhead projector. The students can freely make any number of changes to their texts by deleting w or moving them around without having to retype large chunks of text all over again. Any work done ca saved on the computer for revision later.

Lesso

Teaching students to self-edit

Topic: 207: Introduction Teaching Students to Self-edit

Over the past couple of decades, the process approach to teaching writing has greatly improvec L1 and L2 composition pedagogy. However, though students may be much better at invention, organiz and revision than they were before, too many written products are still riddled with grammatical and l inaccuracies. No matter how interesting or original a student's overall writing abilities, ESL writing teach addition to focusing on student's ideas, need to help students develop and improve their editing skills.

In the modern process approach composition classroom, editing refers to finding and corr grammatical, lexical, and mechanical errors before submitting (or "publishing") a final written prod number of studies claim that a lack of grammatical accuracy in ESL student writing may impede stu progress in the university at large (Janopolous, 1992; Santos, 1998; Vann, Lorenz & Meyer, 1991; Me Lorenz, 1984). As a university-level ESL writing teacher, I know the high standard of accuracy in s writing that the academic discourse community demands. My students will not succeed outside of th academic discourse community demands. My students will not succeed outside of the sheltered world ESL class unless they can learn to reduce their errors. Because I will not always be there to help my stu it is important that they learn to edit their own work.

As shown by several ESL editing textbooks (Ascher, 1993; Fox, 1992; Lane and Lange, 1993; R 1992a) and a teacher's reference on responding to ESL writing (Bates, Lane & Lange, 1993), researche teachers of ESL writing have become more aware of the need to help students self-edit their writing (L Lange, 1993, p.xix). In response to this need, I have developed and used a semester-long editing p approach to help advanced ESL writing students become more self-sufficient as editors. The particulars approach follow.

Philosophical assumption: Why it is necessary to personalize editing i

I based my editing process approach on the following principles:

- Students and teachers should focus on major patterns of error rather than attempt to correc single error (Bates, Lane, & Lange, 1993).
- Because not all students will make the same errors, it is necessary and desirable to personalize instruction as much as possible.
- The errors to focus on should be those that are most frequent, global (interface w comprehensibility of the text), and stigmatizing (would cause a negative evaluation from speakers) (Bates, Lane, & Lange, 1993; Hendrickson, 1980).

The Editing Process:

Bates, lane, and Lange (1993) and Hendrickson (1980) advocate teaching students as di approach through which they will become independent self-editors. I teach my advanced ESL student a three-stage discovery approach to become self-sufficient editors.

Topic: 208: Focusing on Form

Although some teachers assume that all ESL students are obsessively concerned with gramm detriment of developing and presenting their ideas, I have found that many students have little interes pay limited attention to editing their work. They find editing tedious or unimportant or they have becom dependent on teachers or tutors to correct their work for them. A crucial step in teaching students to good editors is to convince them of the necessity of doing so.

To raise awareness of the importance of editing, I use in-class activities in which the student sentences or short student essays that contain a variety of editing problems. Rather than simply fin correcting errors, they discuss how these errors impede their understanding of the texts, as in follow examples:

1. My parent always gave me a lot of love.
2. School is the place where I learn things such as reading and writing.
3. I like coffee; on the other hand, I also like.

A simple checklist might be issued to students to alert them to some of the common found in students' writing: for instance:

- Have you used your verbs in the correct tense?
- Are the verb forms correct?
- Have you checked for subject-verb agreement?
- Have you used the correct prepositions?
- Have you left out the articles where they are required?
- Have you used all your pronouns correctly?
- Is your choice of adjectives and adverbs appropriate?
- Have you written in complete sentences?

The students are, however, not always expected to know where and how to correct every e to the best of their ability should be done as a matter of course, every error, but editing to ability should be done as a matter of course, prior to submitting their work for evaluation ea within process writing is meaningful because students can see the connection between st and their own writing in that correction is not done for its own sake but as part of the pro communication as clear and unambiguous as possible to an audience.

Topic: 205: Evaluating and Post Writing

Editing:

Very often, teachers pleading lack of time have compressed responding, editing and e one. This would, in effect, deprive students of that vital link between drafting and revision-tha which often make a big difference to the kind of writing that will eventually be produced.

In evaluating student writing, the storing may be analytical (i.e., based on specific as ability) or holistic (i.e., based on a global interpretation of the effectiveness of that piece of wri be effective, the criteria for evaluation should be made known to students in advance. They overall interpretation of the task, sense of audience, relevance, development and organization or layout, grammar and clarity of communication. Depending on the purpose of evaluation, a or grade may be assigned.

Students may be encouraged to evaluate their own and each other's texts once properly taught how to do it. In this way, they are made to be more responsible for their own wr

Post writing:

Post-writing constitutes any classroom activity that the teacher ad students can do wit pieces of writing. This includes publishing, sharing, reading aloud, transforming texts for stag or merely displaying texts on notice-boards. The post-writing stage is a platform for recognizin as important and worthwhile. It may be used as a motivation for writing as well as to hedge finding excuses for writing. Students must be made to feel that they are writing for a very real p

Topic: 206: Implementing Process

Here are some pointers which teachers may like to take note of when implementing pro

Teacher Modeling:

Teachers should model the writing process at every stage and teach specific writ students through meaningful classroom activities.

Relating Process to Product:

A first draft looks quite unlike another draft that has gone through several revisions. students go through the various stages of writing, they understand what kind of product is e stage. Thus students need to be guided to set and achieve specific writing goals at every stag

Working Within Institutional Constraints:

It is possible to teach some process skills appropriate to a writing stage, be it p responding, revising or editing within a regular two-period composition lesson. The teach process skill could be repeated in subsequent composition lessons. Process skills can be syst each time until the entire series of such skills is developed over a period of time.

Catering To Diverse Student Needs:

The teacher should implement a flexible program to cater to different student needs. need to know what the individual student knows and work from there. The teacher may als students enter into different writing groups as planners, drafters, responders, revisers, or writing session. A student may be with the planner for one task, but move to be with the ec same or another task, according to his or her need or development stage in writing.

literature, which they discussed and analyzed in class. Next, the teacher assigned a composing task based
the literary text, referring back to the rhetorical description introduced earlier. This sequence often w
accompanied by a linear outline or template for students to follow in constructing their essays or themes. In t
final phase of the instructional sequence, the teacher evaluated the students' assignments before initiating
similar cycle based on a new literary text.

This model of composition instruction, known by some as the "traditional paradigm" in U.S. Engli
language education (Berlin, 1987; Bloom, Daiker, & White, 1997; Clark, 2003b, 2003c, 2003d) and by oth
as the "product approach" (Kroll, 2001), was not grounded in a fully articulated theory of education or cognit
development. Indeed, the traditional paradigm reflected a perspective in which school-based essays a
themes were viewed as static representations of students' learning and content knowledge. Therefore,
product-oriented writing classrooms, little if any effort was dedicated to the strategies and other cognit
operations involved in putting pen to paper (or fingers to the keyboard) and drafting a coherent, meaning
piece of connected discourse.

The Process Movement and Allied Pedagogies in L1 and L2 Composition

The 1960s, 1970s, and 1980s witnessed a highly influential trend in L1 composition pedagogy a
research. "Process approaches," as they now are broadly labeled, emphasized the individual writer as
creator of original ideas. It was believed that written discourse encoded these ideas, serving as a vehicle
exploring oneself, conveying one's thoughts, and claiming one's individual voice, or authorial persona, a
writer. Process-oriented writing pedagogies focused particular attention on procedures for solving proble
discovering ideas, expressing them in writing, and revising emergent texts—typically, in isolation from
cultural, educational, or sociopolitical contexts in which writing might take place (Canagarajah, 20
Casanave, 2003; Hyland, 2003).

Faigley (1986) divided process writing proponents into two distinct categories: expressivists a
cognitivists. Expressivists (Elbow, 1973,1981a, 1981b; Macrorie, 1984; Murray, 1985; Zamel, 1982, 19
viewed composing as "a creative act in which the process—the discovery of the true self—is as important
the product" (Berlin, 1988, p. 484). Based on the belief that writing instruction should be nondirective
personalized, expressionism writing instruction involved tasks designed to promote selfdiscovery,
emergence of personal voice, and empowerment of the individual's inner writer. Elbow (1981b), for exam
enthusiastically advocated journal writing and personal essays as tasks in which students could "write fre
and uncritically" to "get down as many words as possible" (p. 7). Expressivism therefore explicitly val
fluency and voice (Elbow, 1981b, 1999) as the chief tools for achieving writing proficiency (Hillocks, 19
Hirvela & Belcher, 2001; Ivanic, 1998; Sharpies, 1999; Soven, 1999; Zamel, 1976,1982,1983).

Cognitivism, sometimes described as a "writing as problem solving" approach, has affected the
construction in L2 writing pedagogy in even more marked ways. At the same time, some cognit
approaches share with expressivism an explicit appreciation of novice writers' composing processes
recursive, personal, and "inner directed" (Bizzell, 1992). Cognitivists placed considerably greater value than
expressivists on high-order thinking and problem-solving operations. These operations included plann
defining rhetorical problems, positioning problems in a larger context, elaborating definitions, propos
solutions, and generating grounded conclusions (Emig, 1983; Flower, 1985,1989; Hayes & Flower, 1983).

Hallmarks of cognitivist approaches to teaching L1 and L2 writing as a process include invention
prewriting tasks, drafting of multiple versions of writing assignments, abundant textlevel revision, collabora
writing, feedback sessions, and the postponement of editing until the final stages of the composing c
Atkinson, 2003b; Clark, 2003b; Murray, 1992; see chapters 3, 4, and 5). Cognitivist rhetoricians and L2 wr
practitioners thus focused principally on developing writers' intramental processes, particularly cognitive
metacognitive strategies for creating, revising, and correcting their texts independently (Bereite
Scardamalia, 1987; Berlin, 1988; de Larios, Murphy, & Marín, 2002; Flower, 1989; Ransdell & Barbier, 20
2002b). From a cognitivist, process-based perspective, writing is "essentially learnt, not taught, and
teacher's role is to be nondirective and facilitating, assisting writers to express their own meanings throug
encouraging and cooperative environment with minimal interference" (Hyland, 2003, p. 18).

Topic: 214: Issues and Methods in L2 Writing

Based on presumed and observed similarities between L1 and L2 composing processes, ESL wr
instruction in the early 1980s largely replicated L1 classroom practice (Leki, 1992; Matsuda, 2003b). Not
id research in L1 composition and rhetoric provide sound theoretical underpinnings for L2 compo
edagogy, emergent L2 writing research also began to show that ESL writers already proficient in writir
heir primary languages tended to display strategies and skills parallel to those displayed by native Eng
peaking writers. For instance, Cumming (1989) and Zamel (1976, 1982, 1983) demonstrated that ESL wr
ith well-developed L1 writing abilities tended to transfer L1 skills and strategies to their L2 compo
ocesses. The ESL students in these investigations displayed skills that included planning, grap
ccessfully with specific writing tasks, organizing their ideas, and revising their texts to reflect their inten
writers. Cumming (1989) also reported that the ability of his intermediate- and advanced-level write
actice these strategies as they composed in English was an independent function of their measured
oficiency. This study and others like it led some L2 writing researchers and practitioners to conclude that
udents' needs are essentially comparable with those of basic L1 writers in terms of composing proce
d their instructional needs.

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Topic: 216: Prior Knowledge and Its Implications for the Teaching of L2

A primary feature distinguishing NNS from NS writers lies in the prior experience they composition classroom. Differences in background knowledge and strategic proficiency manifest t a variety of ways: in NNS students' responses to texts and topics, in their reactions to the act writing classrooms, and in their familiarity with the rhetorical patterns of academic and professio communities (Fig. 1.1).

This prior knowledge about texts, their purposes, their genre categories, and their formal part of a learner's schema. A schema refers to an "organized chunk of knowledge or exp accompanied by feelings" (Weaver, 1994, p. 18). In psycholinguistic and cognitive approaches reading, schema has been discussed in terms of both content and formal knowledge about texts Field, 1997; Carrell, 1983a, 1983b; Carrell & Eisterhold, 1983; Chen & Graves, 1995; Grabe & S particularly the facilitative effects of adequate schemata—and, conversely, the debilitating absence of sufficient schematic knowledge—among L2 readers and writers.

Knowledge brought to the writing class

about reading and writing topics

about written texts

about rhetorical patterns of academic writing in English

about the expectations of English-speaking academic readers

Reactions to the writing class

about the role of personal expression in English writing

about writing from sources and using the work of others

about peer response and teacher-student conferences

about teachers' response techniques

about revision procedures

The notion of schema as it relates to formal instruction rests on several precepts: tha involve an interaction between readers and texts (Rumelhart & McClelland, 1982), that reade and comprehension of a text vary according to individuals' schemata and other circumstance the interaction (Weaver, 1994), and that schemata include not only the content of a te organization (Carrell, 1987). For example, imagine that you are reading a recipe in a magazine web page. What would you expect the content and the organization of that text to comprise would anticipate finding a list of necessary ingredients and then a sequential list of steps to f prepare the dish. A recipe that deviates from this expected structure might frustrate or con expectations constitute your formal and content schemata. Of course, if you have never co baked a cake, your schemata related to recipes will be quite different from those of a skilled your experience with reading that text will vary depending on the circumstances: Are you m the recipe to consider it for a future meal? Are you in the kitchen at this moment preparing din situation naturally will affect the level of concentration and attention to detail that you bring to t

The findings of L1 and L2 literacy research have generally demonstrated that "when are familiar, reading and writing are relatively easy. But when one or the other (or both efficiency, effectiveness, and success are problematic" (Reid, 1993a, p. 63). A major impli theory is that teachers should take systematic steps to ensure that students find the texts course accessible—cognitively, culturally, and educationally (Ediger, 2001; Moran, 2001). Th achieved by selecting reading materials and writing tasks that allow learners to capitali experience. Teachers can likewise devise in-class activities that develop and expand stu Specific suggestions for schema activation and development are presented in chapters 2, 3, a

Topic: 217: Contrastive Rhetoric and Its Implications for Teaching E

As we have suggested, an important way that the schemata of L2 students differ writers involves their expectations about the structural properties and rhetorical functions of t contrastive rhetoric (CR) aims to characterize these divergent expectations and their effe development, including L2 writing skills. Connor (1996) wrote that "contrastive rhetoric maint and writing are cultural phenomena. As a result, each language has rhetorical conven

Furthermore, the linguistic and rhetorical conventions of the first language interfere with writing in the secon language" (p. 5).

The Genesis of Contrastive Rhetoric. Kaplan's (1966) pioneering article is frequently considered t be a landmark work in the study of CR. At the time that Kaplan's article appeared, contrastive analysis (CA and its application to foreignand second-language instruction were very much in vogue. With the CA approach inguists and materials developers compared the grammatical structures and phonological features of learners .ls with those of the L2 they were trying to acquire. It was believed that CA could identify specific areas o difficulty (e.g., in syntax and speech production), and that direct instruction focusing on major contrastive eatures could facilitate and accelerate the language learning process (Gass & Selinker, 2001; Mitchell & Myles, 1998).

Against the backdrop of CA, Kaplan (1966) suggested that L2 students' LIs also exhibited contrasting hetorical and logical patterns. His study featured a formal analysis of more than 600 texts written by NNS riters representing a range of primary languages. On the basis of his rhetorical analysis, Kaplan proposed the llowing generalizations: Arabic-speaking writers make extensive use of coordination (considered excessive y Englishspeaking readers), speakers of "Oriental" languages tend to circle around a topic instead of pproaching it head-on, and speakers of French and Spanish tend to digress and introduce extraneous aterial more than NNS writers of English do.

The Impact of CR in ESL Writing Instruction. Kaplan's ground-breaking article ignited considerable terest in CR, which has since generated an impressive body of empirical research. In characterizing the pact of Kaplan's work, Hinkel (2002) noted that CR research

> pursues the goal of descriptive accuracy that originates in pedagogical necessity. He specified that L2 students enrolled in U.S. colleges and universities are expected to produce academic texts that are congruent with Anglo-American rhetorical paradigms. However, these students bring to the larger academic arena the fundamental discourse paradigms that reflect their LI conventions of writing, and need to be taught the textual constructs accepted in writing in English, (p. 6)

With its focus on the written products of expert and novice writers (as compared with the writers mselves), CR has led to spirited discussions concerning the possible influences of L2 writers' primary guages, their knowledge of L1-specific rhetorical patterns, and their educational experiences on the nstruction of their written products. Although hardly uncontroversial, CR has contributed much to our derstanding of rhetorical patterns in written text across a range of genres by accounting for the frequency of ected rhetorical features in written discourse, the conventions associated with particular written genres, and patterns of text construction across numerous languages (Brauer, 2000; Connor, 2003).

In the years after the publication of Kaplan's (1966) research, ESL and composition professionals rpreted his findings as suggesting a number of instructional implications. For instance, many teachers felt the CR hypothesis pointed to the need among L2 writers for explicit instruction and modeling in the orical patterns of English (Angelova & Riazantseva, 1999; Kirkpatrick, 1997). Not unexpectedly, this view etailed nicely with current-traditional approaches to writing instruction that prevailed in the 1960s and Os, and into the 1980s. Nonetheless, as the CR hypothesis underwent increasing scrutiny, a number of rvations surfaced concerning its validity and empirical premises (Panetta, 2001). Kaplan's (1966) early was criticized for the alleged imprecision of his analytic categories (e.g., his classification of all Asian rs in his sample under the broad category, of "Oriental") (Zhang, 1997). Critics have likewise asserted that an's early framework was overly simple, given his attempt to reconstruct L1 rhetorical patterns from positions written in students' L2s (Holyoak & Piper, 1997). In addition, detractors have argued that CR els were deterministic, leading to rigid, ethnocentric views of English rhetorical patterns and potentially ging stereotypes of ESL writers (Kachru, 1995; Kubota, 1997,1999; Leki, 1997; Scollon, 1997; Wu & , 2000; Zamel, 1997).

Nevertheless, CR-based studies have produced useful evidence of differing rhetorical patterns across e languages, indicating measurable effects of L1-specific discursive and sentence-level patterns on the of ESL writers (Connor 1996, 2003; Connor & Kaplan, 1987; Kaplan, 1987, 1988; Leki, 1991b, 1992; s, 1988; Reid, 1993a). Hinds' (1983a, 1983b, 1987) investigations of Japanese and English entation styles provide a clear and persuasive example. In his studies, Hinds discovered that English- ng readers expected writers to make clear, unambiguous statements of their points of view, usually near ginning of a persuasive text. In contrast, he reported that Japanese-speaking writers elected to obscure wn opinions in their presentation of the various sides of an issue, taking a position only at the end of the at all. Having probed his writers' and readers' perceptions of persuasive writing, he discovered that se readers found the linear, deductive argumentation style associated with English-language texts to be ointless, and self-involved. At the same time, Englishspeaking readers perceived Japanese ntative patterns to be circuitous, abstract, and occasionally evasive.

The strong predictive claims made by early CR researchers no longer characterize this important line of l study in L2 writing (Connor, 2003; Hinkel, 2002; Kaplan, 2001), yet even the most conservative acknowledge the descriptive value of careful CR research. According to state-of-the-art CR research, ot assume that all writers from a given linguistic or cultural background will experience the same s in a given L2.

lowever, the knowledge that logical patterns of organization in written language differ cross-culturally s-linguistically can help both teachers and students understand issues and challenges involved in

quoting, and so on • may have received instruction in how to avoid plagiarism • may have extensive experience with teachers' response and feedback styles (e.g., marginal notes, questioning, indirectness, and so forth) • may expect to revise assignments significantly.	experience using published sources, paraphrasing, or quoting • may have undergone little or no instruction in how to avoid plagiarism • may have little or no experience with teachers' interactive response and feedback styles (e.g., marginal notes, questioning, indirectness, and so forth); may expect little or no feedback for revision • may not expect to revise assignments significantly (if at all).

FIG. 1.3. Overview of differences between novice NS and ESL writers.

Lesson 39

Responding to written work I

Topic: 219: Introduction Responding to Written Work

The assessment of learners' written work can have a range of goals. These goals can be classified under various headings. First, as we have seen in Chapter 8 on the writing process, assessment can focus on the product or the piece of writing itself, or on the process of writing. Second, assessment can differ in its purposes. It can aim at making a summative judgement on the learners' writing for the purpose of awarding a grade, or passing or failing. It can aim at a formative shaping of the learners' progress in writing by diagnosing problems, by providing encouragement to keep writing and to write more, and by providing constructive feedback on the content and form of the writing. Table 10.1 lists one range of options.

Topic: 220: Assessment and Motivation

Motivating

Positive feedback on the content of learners' writing can do a lot to increase the amount of writing that learners do and to improve their attitude to writing. This feedback includes comments like the following.

"The part about the fire was really interesting. Can you tell me more about that?"

"You wrote that the end of the movie surprised you. What were you expecting?"

Written feedback like this tells the writer that their work is being read, is understood, and interests the reader. Especially with younger learners, it is important not to discourage writing by always giving feedback that points out the errors in the writing. There should be a place in a writing course for feedback on errors but this kind of feedback needs to be very carefully balanced against the positive encouragement to write more, and these two kinds of feedback need to be separated.

Table 10.1 Goals, Purpose and Means of Writing Assessment

Goals	Purpose	Means
Motivating	Increase amount of writing Develop a love of writing	Positive feedback on the content Publication of the writing
Improving the quality of writing	Improve the written product Improve control of the writing process	Peer feedback Conferencing Marking of errors Analytic assessment Use of checklists Self-assessment
Diagnosing problems	Finding poorly controlled parts of the writing process	Analysis of the product Observation of the process
Measuring proficiency	Award a grade	Holistic assessment Analytic assessment Assessment of a portfolio

Another form of positive feedback is publication. This can take many forms. Reading written work aloud to others is a form of publication. Having your work circulated or posted on the wall of the classroom is another, and having it appear in a printed collection is yet another.

Some learners are embarrassed by praise, especially in the presence of peers. One way of dealing with this is to praise the piece of work not the person. That is, rather than say "You did a good job with the

introduction", some learners may find it more acceptable to hear "The introduction was very organised",

The motivation to write is most helped by learners doing a lot of successful writing. [illegible] involves the learners writing for a set time each day and keeping a graph of the number of words that fixed time. Special praise is given to those who increase the amount they write within that ti

Topic: 221: Improving the Quality Of Writing

In Chapter 8 we have looked at ways of providing feedback on the various parts of the w The techniques used to provide feedback to learners on their writing can differ over a range of 10.2 lists the possibilities.

Source of feedback	Teacher; Peers; Self
Mode of feedback	Spoken; Written; Both
Size of audience	Whole class; Small group; Individual
Focus of the feedback	Product—several aspects or narrow focus; Process—several aspects or
Form of the feedback	Comments; Scale; Checklist
Amount of writing	Single piece of writing; A portfolio of writing

Table 10.2 Factors Involved in Giving Feedback

1. **Source of feedback.** The feedback can come from the teacher, from peers, and from themselves in self-assessment. The use of peer feedback can reduce the teacher's loa very valuable in helping writers develop a sense of audience. The use of self-assessmen metacognitive awareness of the writing process and the qualities of good writing.
2. **Mode of feedback.** Feedback can be written or spoken or a combination of these. Spo allows a dialogue to exist between the writer and the source of feedback. It may also be m in getting the writer's attention than written feedback. Written feedback provides a lasting can be used to measure progress and to act as a reminder.
3. **Size of the audience.** A teacher can give feedback to the whole class, to small individuals. Where there are common problems in the class, feedback to the whole class c of time. Working at the individual level, as in conferencing, can provide an opportunity to e as well as give feedback.
4. **Focus of the feedback.** Feedback can focus on aspects of the written product as, for ex marking scales are used. It can also focus on the parts of the writing process. The focus ca a range of aspects or parts of the process, or it can be narrowed down to focus on only Having a narrow focus can make peer evaluation more effective.
5. **Form of the feedback.** Feedback can be guided by the use of checklists or scales. Feed uncontrolled when spoken or written comments are given on the strengths and weakne piece of writing without the systematic coverage of a scale. Upshur and Turner (1995) des of making scales which can be used for marking large quantities of tests with reasonable r validity.
6. **Amount of the writing looked at.** Feedback can be given on parts of a piece of writing, when someone sits next to the writer and reads what they have just written after every sentences are written. Feedback can be given on the whole of a piece of writing, or on a writing. The advantages of seeing a portfolio are that a range of genres can be looked at, progress over time can be seen and commented on, and the assessment is likely to be m and valid because of the numerous points of assessment.

Let us now look at some techniques for providing feedback that draw on the factors w considered. The various combinations of these factors provide a very large number of feedback We will look at a few that together cover most of the factors.

Topic: 222: Written and Oral Feedback to the Class

Written Feedback to the Class

Where learners in the class have common weaknesses and strengths in their writing, an e of giving feedback is to prepare a written report that is handed out to the class. This report can det best pieces of writing were like, what the common errors and weaknesses were, and what to do a The teacher may also make individual written comments on each piece of writing but these need extensive if they are accompanied by a class handout.

This sheet also provides a useful record that can be looked at again by the teacher for late writing or for other years to see if the strengths and weaknesses are the same or have changed.

If a grade is given to the pieces of writing, the handout sheet can also explain the range of grades and the criteria for each step in the grading scale.

Oral Feedback to the Whole Class

A very effective way to give feedback on writing is to get the permission of two or three learners to put their pieces of writing on an overhead projector transparency and then go through them orally with the whole class. In effect, the learners are watching the teacher mark a piece of work and this can help the learners see what the teacher is looking for and what the teacher values in a piece of writing. The teacher can also ask the learners to comment and can interact with them on points in the piece of writing. This obviously has to be done tactfully and with praise for the writing playing a large part in the commentary. The name of the writer could be kept confidential, but this is unlikely to be successful in a small class where learners know each other reasonably well.

It is worth remembering that when the good points and bad points are mentioned, it is better to end with the good points so that the writer is left with a positive feeling about the piece of writing. If learners know that everyone has a chance of having their writing discussed in this way, they may be less likely to use it as a way of making fun of others.

Topic: 223: Individual Feedback

One way of speeding up marking and making sure a balanced range of aspects of writing are dealt with is to mark each learner's work using a scale. Each part of the scale can be accompanied by a brief comment explaining why that point on the scale was chosen. Here is an example of a scale.

Aspects of writing	Comments
Richness of vocabulary 1 —— 2 —— 3 —— 4 —— 5	
Mechanics (spelling, punctuation) 1 —— 2 —— 3 —— 4 —— 5	
Grammatical accuracy and complexity 1 —— 2 —— 3 —— 4 —— 5	
Organisation and coherence 1 —— 2 —— 3 —— 4 —— 5	
Content 1 —— 2 —— 3 —— 4 —— 5	

The use of a standard feedback tool like a scale gives learners feedback on each of the important aspects of their writing, allows them to see improvement or lack of it for each aspect, and makes them aware of the range of aspects that need to be considered while writing and when reflecting on it. It can be a useful preparation for self-assessment.

Topic: 224: Conferencing on a Portfolio

Conferencing involves a one-to-one meeting between the teacher and the learner to talk about the learner's writing. A portfolio is a collection of several pieces of the learner's writing, some of which may have already been marked and commented on. The major strength of conferencing is that the learner can provide an explanation of what was involved in the pieces of writing, and can seek clarification from the teacher about the teacher's evaluation of them.

Good conferencing is interactive. It should conclude with clear proposals for future improvement of the writing. Learners can prepare for conferencing either by preparing some questions to ask, or by having a sheet provided by the teacher that gives the learner some questions to consider. These questions can focus on what the teacher expects in the writing.

Conferencing on a portfolio allows the opportunity to look at weaknesses and strengths which appear in several pieces of writing and thus deserve comment. It also allows the opportunity to see improvement across several pieces of writing. This improvement can be in the quantity written, the quality of the writing, and quality and range of the content. Conferencing is also used at different stages of a piece of writing so that the learner is helped to improve a particular piece of writing. Conferencing takes a lot of time but its focused one-to-one interaction brings many benefits.

Topic: 225: Marking Grammatical Errors

Some pieces of writing can be marked for grammatical accuracy, appropriate use of vocabulary, and spelling. This feedback can have the goal of helping learners develop knowledge and strategies for self-correction. Learners at intermediate and advanced levels appreciate such feedback and ask for it, particularly when they have to write reports, memos, and assignments that others will read.

The most effective way of giving this kind of feedback is to have a set of signals that indicate where the error occurs and what kind of error it is. The learners then have to correct their own errors after they have been marked and show their corrections to the teacher. They do not rewrite the piece of writing but make the corrections on the marked piece of writing. This makes the teacher's checking much easier. See Chapter 8 for such a scheme.

If the number of errors per 100 words is calculated and put on a graph, learners can see t
mprovement on this aspect of writing. When the errors per 100 words is high, around ten or more errors
100 words, it is easy to make very quick improvement in grammatical accuracy. This is because many o
errors will involve items like subject-verb agreement, article usage, and verb group construction, which
ule-based. Learning the rules and how to check their application brings quick improvement. When learners
naking about three errors per 100 words, improvement is very slow because most of the errors are v
based, involving collocation, appropriacy, and grammatical patterns that apply to certain words.

Such feedback is a useful part of a well-balanced writing course, but it must not be the only ki
eedback. Too much of this detailed, negative feedback can discourage learners from writing and from t
isks when writing.

Topic: 226: Peer Evaluation

Peer evaluation involves learners receiving feedback on their writing from each other. It can be do
pairs or in a small group. Each learner brings the draft of a piece of writing, the others read it, and ther
helpful comments. In order to make commenting easier, the learners can be told to focus on one o
aspects of the piece of writing, such as organisation, the quality of the argument, or formal aspects such a
use of headings or references. Usually the learners will make oral comments, but written feedback is
possible.

The main advantages of peer evaluation is that learners get feedback from others besides the tea
It can help them develop a more balanced model of the reader, who they can then think of when they
Peer feedback also allows those giving feedback to learn from seeing others' pieces of writing and h
what others say about them. In the academic world, peer review is an important part of the publication pr
It has the two goals of obtaining an adequate product as well as providing training for future writing.

A major problem with peer evaluation is that learners may not value the comments of their pee
see them as being far inferior to the teacher's comments (Zhang, 1995). There are several ways of d
with this. First, peer evaluation can be a step before teacher evaluation. If learners see that peer eva
can result in an eventual better evaluation by the teacher, peer evaluation will be valued. Second, the qu
peer evaluation can be raised by providing training in evaluation (Min, 2005 and 2006) and by providing
guidelines to use during the evaluation. These written guidelines can be questions to ask or a checklist
(2006) study shows that training learners in doing peer review results in many more comments
incorporated into the revision, peer comments becoming by far the greatest source of revisions, and in
revisions. The training Min used lasted a total of five hours and involved in-class modelling and one-
conferencing outside class. It should be possible to develop a more efficient training system. The b
make it clearly worth doing.

Topic: 227: Self-Evaluation with a Checklist and Reformulation

Part of the writing process is checking over what has been written to make improvements. Ir
writing, such as the writing of assignments for academic study, this checking can be helped if the
checklist of things to consider. Here is a possible checklist.

- Is your main argument clearly stated?
- Is it presented very early in the writing?
- Are the supports for this argument clearly signalled?
- Are there enough sub-headings?
- If you look only at the sub-headings, do they cover the main ideas in the assignment?
- Have you checked carefully for spelling and grammar errors?
- Are all the references in your text also in the list of references?
- Are your references complete and do they follow a consistent format?
- Have you kept within the word limits of the assignment?

A step towards self-assessment is pair checking, where learners work in pairs to check eac
assignment together. That is, both learners read the same assignment together.

Topic: 228: Electronic Feedback

If texts are submitted in electronic form, it is possible to provide feedback using the range
processing functions. Here we will look at some of those available in the word-processing program,
Word, but other programs have similar features.

- **Track changes**: by turning on the Track changes function in the Tools menu, any changes th
  makes to the text are clearly indicated for the learner to see. Additions are highlighted, and
  are indicated. The learner can decide to accept or reject these changes and continue to im
  text.

- **Comment:** by turning on the Comment function in the Insert menu, the teacher can add helpful suggestions for improving the text or can praise parts of the text.
- **Font colour**: by selecting part of the text, and changing the font colour (go to the Format menu, choose Font, and click the desired colour), the teacher can mark parts of the text that need careful checking or rewriting. Different colours can be used to mark different problems.
- **Hyperlink:** if the learner has a problem with using a particular word, the teacher can make a small concordance (a list of sentences all containing the problem word) using Tom Cobb's website (www.lextutor.ca) or using a downloadable concordancer and link this short concordance using the hyperlink function in the insert menu.

Here is an example of a concordance for explain.

1. . . . te smoke screen . . . I have nothing to [[explain]]."<quote/ ><p/> <p >As for debates, Clin . . .
2. . . . .the famous and the powerful squirm and [[explain]], charge and countercharge.<p/> <p >L . . .
3. . . . . re he will call a Press conference to [[explain]] his sorry side of this financial mess.<...
4. . . . eting. Failure to attend the meeting or [[explain]] inability to attend, the letters said,...
5. . . . ited States, State Department officials [[explain]], now is mainly interested in setting u...
6. . . . inted with this sport I should perhaps [[explain]] that dividend stripping is essentially...
7. . . . resentative of Syria called upon her to [[explain]] that his brother would meet her at the...
8. . . . a garrulous American egghead tried to [[explain]] the difference between the Senate and t...
9. . . . Department officials were inclined to [[explain]] the April sales decline as a reaction f...
10. . . . recorder (the "black box"), which could [[explain]] why two engines fell from the plane a...
11. . . . . to give a performance himself. This may [[explain]] why sometimes his films let personalit...
12. . . . term 's law clerks in their search to [[explain]] why Justices Anthony Kennedy, David Sou...

By looking at several relevant examples, the learner can work out how to correct the error they made when using this word in their writing. All of these types of feedback require the learners to send their writing as a [illegible] responding to it on the computer (see Gaskell and Cobb, 2004 for

attempts to trace the influence of teacher commentary on student writing. Again, evidence on this point is scarce, whereas most changes made by students in response to teacher feedback have a positive impact on their revised texts, at least some teacher comments lead students to make changes that actually weaken their papers (Conrad & Goldstein, 1999; Ferris, 1997,2001; Goldstein & Conrad, 1990; Hyland & Hyland, 2002; Patthey-Chavez & Ferris, 1997).

Topic: 231: Student Views on Teacher Feedback

Studies on the nature of teacher feedback and its effects on student writers have been rare. Nonetheless, a more substantial body of work in both L1 and L2 composition examines student reactions to teacher response (Arndt, 1993; Brice, 1995; Cohen, 1987; Cohen & Cavalcanti, 1990; Enginarlar, 1993; Ferris, 1995b; Hedgcock & Lefkowitz, 1994,1996; Radecki & Swales, 1988; Saito, 1994; Straub, 1997; see also Ferris, 2003b, chapter 5, for a review). Findings across these studies are surprisingly consistent and include the following insights:

1. I. Students greatly appreciate and value teacher feedback, considering teacher commentary extremely important and helpful to their writing development
2. Students see value in teacher feedback On a Variety of issues, not just language errors,
3. Students are frustrated by teacher feedback when it" is illegible, cryptic (e.g., consisting of symbols, circles, single-word questions, comments), or confusing (e.g., consisting of questions that are unclear, suggestions that are difficult to incorporate into emergent drafts).
4. Students value a mix of encouragement and constructive criticism and are generally not offended or hurt by thoughtful suggestions for improvement.

Topic: 232: Principles for Providing Written Feedback (I)

Considering our own experiences with the feedback we have received on our own writing as well as feedback we have offered as teachers, together with what the literature suggests about teacher commentary in L2 writing, we present the following guiding principles (summarized in Fig. 5.1 and discussed briefly here) for approaching the delicate and arduous process of constructing written feedback for L2 student writers:

1. The teacher is not the only respondent. Depending on their ability and experience with writing, students can benefit greatly from peer response and guided self-evaluation. Chapter 6 focuses extensively

(may) teachers may be [illegible] without ever stopping to consider what the student writer job as L2 writing instructors is to build students' motiv their ideas in English. Although it is not strictly necessa criticism, teachers should recognize that both types of of the writer and discipline themselves to provide wri regular basis.

7. Teachers should treat their students as individuals, ongoing conversation between themselves and eac provide "personalized" feedback, by writing summar name and signing their own. Whereas providing pe we strive toward— treating students as individuals draft to draft and assignment to assignment, encouraging them for the progress we observe acquainted with our students in class, during conf not). We also must collect and read ongoing writi comment on student progress (or lack thereof, in

Guiding principles of written teacher commentary

1. The teacher is not only respondent.
2. Written commentary is not the only option.
3. Teachers do not need to respond to every sing
4. Feedback should focus on the issues presen rigid prescriptions.
5. Teachers should take care to avoid "appro about content or revisions should be left in th
6. Teachers should provide both encouragem
7. Teachers should treat their students as ind ongoing conversation between themselves

...ments in the University

Undergraduate students in U.S. colleges and universities are required to take general education courses in such disciplines as the sciences, history, philosophy, psychology, and sociology prior to their studies in their chosen majors. One implication of this structure in U.S. college education is that the greatest demand on students' language skills occurs during the first 2 years of their academic careers, when they are expected to read large amounts of diverse types academic text, write many short and long assignments, and take numerous tests and exams.

In the academy in English-speaking countries, the purpose of written assignments and of examinations and testing is to require students to display their knowledge and familiarity with the course material. Examinations vary in types and formats, ranging from multiple-choice tests to lengthy term papers, including essay tests and short essay-like responses. Outside multiple-choice tests, a great deal of writing is expected in most undergraduate courses, and it is not unusual for students to have to produce up to a dozen written assignments per term (Horowitz, 1986a). Even some multiple-choice tests—such as the TOEFL, ACT, or SAT—incorporate an essay component designed to measure test takers' writing proficiencies.

It is important to note that practically all writing assignments necessitate more than one writing task, such as exposition in the introduction, followed by cause/effect or comparison/contrast rhetorical structures, and possibly back to exposition in the conclusion. For instance, most types of writing assignments can include summaries of published works or syntheses of multiple sources of information or data. In this case, the writing tasks would include synthesis (or analysis) of information, paraphrasing, and restatement skills.

Beginning in the early 1980s, several studies undertook to investigate the types of writing assignments and tasks required of undergraduate and graduate students in academic mainstream courses in various disciplines, such as the natural sciences (e.g., biology, chemistry, and physics), engineering, business, and the humanities including English.

Topic: 243: Characteristics of Academic Writing

A survey of 155 undergraduate and 215 graduate faculty in 21 U.S. universities specifi he essential NNS students' L2 writing skills in courses that ranged from history, psycholo chemistry, and engineering (Rosenfeld, Leung, & Oltman, 2001). The responses of undergr (Table 2.1) clearly indicate that organizing writing to convey major and supporting ideas and examples to support them occupy top priority in the quality of academic discourse1 (ra respectively, out of 5).

TABLE 2.1 Undergraduate Faculty Assessments of Some Writing Tasks

Task Statement	Mean Importance Rating
Organize writing to convey major and supporting ideas.	4.19
Use relevant reasons and examples to support a position.	4.09
Demonstrate a command of standard written English, including grammar, phrasing, effective sentence structure, spelling, and punctuation.	3.70
Demonstrate facility with a range of vocabulary appropriate to the topic.	3.62
Show awareness of audience needs and write to a particular audience or reader.	3.33

Note. Mean Importance Rating on a scale of 0 to 5.

In addition, demonstrating command of standard written English, "including gr effective sentence structure, spelling, and punctuation," is another high-priority requirement (as demonstrating "facility with a range of vocabulary appropriate for the topic" (rank 3.62). showing awareness of audience needs and writing to a particular audience/reader was r important (rank 3.33). In addition to the faculty, undergraduate students ranked written disc skills at 4.18; grammar, phrasing, and sentence structure at 4.15; and appropriate vocabular

The teaching of academic discourse organization is crucially important in L2 writin large number of textbooks are available that focus on discourse. It would be no exaggera teaching of L2 academic writing focuses predominantly on the features of discourse orga markedly few course books on L2 writing for either students or teacher training address th features in L2 instruction. As mentioned earlier, however organized the information flow writing, it may be impossible to understand without an essential clarity and accuracy of text

Graduate faculty (Table 2.2) identified largely similar priorities in student writing importance of information/discourse organization and examples (ranks 4.46 and 4.34, res phrasing, and sentence structure (rank 4.06), and appropriate vocabulary (3.74).

On the other hand, graduate students ranked discourse organization and exemp 3.96, respectively; grammar, phrasing, and sentence structure at 3.83; and vocabulary importance rankings assigned by graduate faculty in practically all categories).

In a separate subset of survey items, both undergraduate and graduate facu specific writing skills that in their experiences determined the success of NNS students undergraduate faculty, the top three L2 writing skills included (in declining order of import

- discourse and information organization (2.40 out of 3)
- standard written English (i.e., grammar, phrasing, and sentence structure;
- vocabulary (2.26).

Among graduate faculty, the top three skills essential for success in academic courses c

- information/discourse organization (2.49 out of 3)
- command of standard written English (2.37)
- using background knowledge, reference materials, and other resource arguments (2.35).

The employment of appropriate vocabulary received a ranking of 2.27.

TABLE 2.2 Graduate Faculty Assessments of Some Writing Tasks

Task Statement	Mean Importance Rating
Organize writing to convey major and supporting ideas.	4.46
Use relevant reasons and examples to support a position.	4.34
Demonstrate a command of standard written	4.06

, including grammar, phrasing, effective
ce structure, spelling, and punctuation.
strate facility with a range of vocabulary 3.74
riate to the topic.
wareness of audience needs and write 3.62
ticular audience or reader.
lean Importance Rating on a scale of 0 to 5.

osenfeld, Leung, and Oltman (2001) study demonstrated unambiguously that L2 gra
lary skills play a crucial role in student academic success (and obviously survival).

: 244: Academic Writing Tasks and Assignments

The most comprehensive study of academic writing tasks was carried out by the Educatio
(Hale et al., 1996), which surveyed eight large comprehensive universities in the United S
tion discussed in this investigation is summarized next.

Writing Assignments

Major academic essays typically have a specified length of 5 to 10 or more than 10 pag
predominantly take the forms of out-of-class assignments and are required far more fr
ties courses such as psychology, economics, history, and English than in the sciences, engi
er science. Most of these projects also necessitate library research and syntheses of lite
t information from a variety of sources. According to the Hale et al. (1996) findings, und
s in the sciences and engineering rarely expect students to write papers as long as 5 to 10
f these types of essays are expected in English department courses.

n-Length Essays and Short Written Tasks

Medium-length essays between 1 and 5 pages are required as in-class and out-of-class assi
ally all disciplines, with the exceptions of undergraduate courses in physics, mathem
ering. In social science and humanities studies, they are expected in a majority of und
s. Similarly, short written assignments of about 0.5 to 1.5 pages represent course com
imately half of all undergraduate courses, including physics, math, and engineering, and 94%
s (Hale et al., 1996). These essays are assigned both in and out of class in undergraduate ar
; alike. Among these assignments, library research reports, laboratory or experiment repo
t interpretation, and book reviews represent the most common types of writing.

Short writing tasks (also called expanded answers) found in many written in-class and
, laboratory reports, case studies, annotations of literature, and computer program doc
ments constitute the most common type of writing across all disciplines and courses. Further
assignments are significantly more common in undergraduate than graduate courses and
utof-class assignments.

h Composition Writing Tasks

English composition instruction often provides the model for teaching writing in EAPs. Acco
t al. (1996) study, short writing tasks are far less common in English than in social or natur
of all in-class assignments vs. 53% and 79%, respectively). On the other hand, out-of-class
ed in 94% of all English courses, for example, compared with 53% in social and 47% in natur
g the assignment types, summaries and unstructured writing genre defined as free writ
, or notes, all which consist of writing down one's thoughts and experiences, are fo
ively in English courses, as well as twice as many assigned library research papers
ines. Major papers of 5 to 10 pages in length are assigned in 41% of English courses and o
science courses. Similarly, 1- to 5-page essays are required in 82% of English courses ver
in social sciences and 21% in physical/natural sciences.

c: 245: Teaching Academic Text Features

Several researchers have identified English composition essays and the pedagogical ess
ubiquitous in English for Academic Purposes (EAPs) programs to be dramatically different
nts are required to write in the disciplines. Among other researchers, Horowitz (1986a) identif
iting tasks in undergraduate humanities courses. According to his findings, these included:

- summary/reaction to a journal article or reading
- annotated bibliography in such disciplines as biology, lab, and experiment reports
- connections between theory and data
- synthesis of multiple literature sources
- various research projects

Horowitz further noted that these assignments do not include invention and personal discov
emic writer's task is not to create personal meaning but to find, organize, and present data a
explicit instructions" (p. 452). According to the author, sentence-level grammar, use of discour
clarity of academic text remain "vital" (p. 454) in the teaching of academically bound NNS stuc

Compare essays native and non-native speaker

1980s, several studies endeavored to learn about the reactions of faculty to particular featur students' text (Johns, 1981; Ostler, 1980; Santos, 1988; Vann, Lorenz, & Meyer, 1991; Vann, Meye 1984). Most professors in the disciplines are not well versed in the complexities of ESL instru learning and acquisition. Nonetheless, their perceptions of text quality are important because they a who grade students' assignments. According to the results of these studies, the employment o lexical, and discourse features of text and errors in the uses of these features have an influential e perceived quality of students' text. Although sentence- and phrase-level errors are often seen in re than absolute terms, the problems in students' uses of verb tenses, word order, subordinate claus voice, and impersonal constructions have been found to obscure the text's meaning. In the view various disciplines, such as physical and natural sciences, humanities, business, and the arts, acc uses of these and other syntactic and lexical features is very important and, in most cases, s lexical errors result in lower assignment grades. When thinking about the importance of accu academic writing of NNS students, many ESL and EAP teachers believe that syntactic and lexical texts are not particularly damaging because NS writers also make numerous mistakes in their text several studies have found that faculty in the disciplines have a far more critical view of ESL error of NSs (Santos, 1988; Vann et al., 1984, 1991). Although the indications of error gravity vary acros and even vary according to the age of faculty, the conclusions in all investigations largely remain errors in students' texts are costly in terms of grades and overall evaluations of work quality. T whether the needs of academically bound NNS learners were adequately addressed in EAP writing Leki and Carson (1997) interviewed a large group of students who began their ESL training and th their studies in various disciplines, such as engineering, biology, business, communications, and The students reported great differences between the demands of writing in EAP classes and disciplines. Among other important considerations, many students identified shortfalls in thei repertoire and a lack of familiarity with the dry academic textual style. Most important, the stu about the fact that EAP writing instruction represents what Leki and Carson called "non-tex writing" (p. 63), whereas in the disciplines students are held accountable for the context of the te and the content and accuracy of the text they produce. The authors concluded that what is valu classes that emphasize personal growth and experience is distinct from that necessary in acade the disciplines. They further stated that EAP writing instruction has the responsibility for preparing "real" academic courses because without adequate exposure to the demands of academic writing essentially left to their own devices once their EAP training is completed. Johns (1997) explai narrow focus of writing instruction in EAPs and its focus on experiential essays is often based on that, "if you can write [or read] an essay, you can write [or read] anything" (p. 122). She pointe mainstream courses the expectations and grading of writing are different from those of ESL/EAP fa

In fact she commented that when NNS students are exposed to largely one type of writi come to believe that "this is the only way to write." Such limited experience with writing actually d a disservice and causes problems in their academic and professional careers. Like Hor emphasized the importance of text in students' academic writing. She emphasized that faculty of that students do not use vocabulary and data with care. However, in her view, because persona highly valued in ESL and EAP writing instruction and because many instructional readings are and/or simplified specifically for NNS readers, students are not exposed to the precision often much of the academic prose. Furthermore, considerations of academic objectivity often convey and syntactic means, such as uses of personal pronouns and passive voice, are in conflict with th of text encouraged in personal essays. Johns emphasized that formal academic register requires guarded and personally and emotionally removed from the text. She underscored that the depersonalized register of academic text is rarely addressed in ESL/EAP writing instruction, bu students are to attain the proficiency necessary for their success in mainstream academic courses

In other studies, Dudley-Evans and St. John (1998) also stated that "the process approac L2 writing], although extremely valuable in helping students organize and plan their writing has fa the actual texts that students have to produce as part of their academic or professional work" (also noted that in the United States, most of those who advocate a process approach see th generalized strategies of planning, writing, and revising as sufficient and believe that a detaile academic texts lies beyond the job of the writing teacher (Raimes, 1993; Zamel, 1983). However Dudley-Evans and St. John, the considerations of end-product quality in L2 writing is importan and professional writing, and combining the strengths of both the product- and process-oriented a the teaching of writing can lead to overall improvements in L2 writing instruction.

Topic: 246: Explicit Instruction in L2 Academic Writing

In an important study that surveyed 77 published research reports on the effectivene grammar instruction, Norris and Ortega (2000) normed the results of investigations in an atten consistency across various investigative and analytical methodologies. Their meta-analysis grammar learning focused instruction of any sort is far more effective than any type of teaching based on focused exposure to L2 without explicit teaching. They further found that focused resulted in large language gains over the course of the instructional term and that the effects of seem to be durable over time. Furthermore, Norris and Ortega explained that explicit instruct inductive or deductive approaches leads to greater L2 gains than implicit instruction of any sor that academically bound L2 learners need to make substantial L2 gains to begin their studies, that L2 grammar and vocabulary should be taught thoroughly and intensively.

* How to compare errors native and non-native speakers?

1980s, several studies endeavored to learn about the reactions of faculty to particular features of NNS students' text (Johns, 1981; Ostler, 1980; Santos, 1988; Vann, Lorenz, & Meyer, 1991; Vann, Meyer, & Lorenz, 1984). Most professors in the disciplines are not well versed in the complexities of ESL instruction or L2 learning and acquisition. Nonetheless, their perceptions of text quality are important because they are the ones who grade students' assignments. According to the results of these studies, the employment of syntactic, lexical, and discourse features of text and errors in the uses of these features have an influential effect on the perceived quality of students' text. Although sentence- and phrase-level errors are often seen in relative rather than absolute terms, the problems in students' uses of verb tenses, word order, subordinate clauses, passive voice, and impersonal constructions have been found to obscure the text's meaning. In the view of faculty in various disciplines, such as physical and natural sciences, humanities, business, and the arts, accuracy in the uses of these and other syntactic and lexical features is very important and, in most cases, syntactic and lexical errors result in lower assignment grades. When thinking about the importance of accuracy in the academic writing of NNS students, many ESL and EAP teachers believe that syntactic and lexical errors in L2 texts are not particularly damaging because NS writers also make numerous mistakes in their texts. However, several studies have found that faculty in the disciplines have a far more critical view of ESL errors than those of NSs (Santos, 1988; Vann et al., 1984, 1991). Although the indications of error gravity vary across disciplines and even vary according to the age of faculty, the conclusions in all investigations largely remain similar: ESL errors in students' texts are costly in terms of grades and overall evaluations of work quality. To determine whether the needs of academically bound NNS learners were adequately addressed in EAP writing instruction, Leki and Carson (1997) interviewed a large group of students who began their ESL training and then continued their studies in various disciplines, such as engineering, biology, business, communications, and social work. The students reported great differences between the demands of writing in EAP classes and those in the disciplines. Among other important considerations, many students identified shortfalls in their vocabulary repertoire and a lack of familiarity with the dry academic textual style. Most important, the students spoke about the fact that EAP writing instruction represents what Leki and Carson called "non-text-responsible writing" (p. 63), whereas in the disciplines students are held accountable for the context of the text they read

When students matriculate from ESL/EAP programs, the quality of their writing and text is evaluated by non-ESL specialists who are faculty in the disciplines. Furthermore, when students' academic studies are completed, the accuracy of their text production is continually appraised by subsequent nonspecialists in on-the-job writing whenever college-educated NNSs write e-mail, notes, reports, and old-fashioned memos. Considerate, understanding, and compassionate ESL teachers who seek to benefit their students have to teach the skills and language features that students must have to achieve their desired professional and career goals. In fact, this is what ESL teachers are hired to do. If instruction in the essential language skills is not provided, students are largely left to their own devices when attempting to attain L2 proficiency needed for their academic and professional endeavors.

Much recent research has shown that exposure to daily and classroom interactions, as well as fluency-oriented instruction, does not represent an effective pedagogical approach to developing syntactic and lexical accuracy (Chang & Swales, 1999; Dudley-Evans & St. John, 1998; Ellis, 2001 Jordan, 1997; Richards, 2002). Although teachers in academic preparatory and writing programs often believe that they set out to develop learners' academic reading and writing proficiencies, in actuality few are closely familiar with the types of writing assignments and tasks that NNS students need to perform once they complete their language training. For example, a list in chapter 5 includes the most frequently encountered nouns in course materials across all disciplines in college-level general education courses and contains such words as ambiguity, anomaly, apparatus, appeal, and aristocrat. In all likelihood, few practicing ESL teachers in EAP programs have undertaken to teach the meanings of these words unless they are fortuitously used in student reading texts. Fluency development activities in writing that require students to keep personal journals or carry out journal-centered correspondence with the teacher are not designed to increase learners' academic vocabulary or grammar repertoire, with its almost requisite uses of passive voice, impersonal construction, and complex hedging. In fact such fluency-based activities encourage the use of immediately accessible lexicon and grammar structures without a means of language gains and perpetuate learners' misunderstanding and confusion with regard to the high degree of accuracy expected in formal academic prose.

A teacher of writing would do a disservice to academically bound NNS students by not preparing them for academic writing assignments, particularly those in the more common forms the students are certain to encounter later in their studies. Within these academic assignments and tasks, students must produce text that is academically sophisticated enough to demonstrate their understanding of and familiarity with the course material. Yet few ESL/EAP programs undertake to at least expose their students to various types of academic assignments and require production of written academic (rather than personal) prose (Chang & Swales, 1999; Johns, 1997; Leki& Carson, 1997).

Topic: 247: Types of Writing Tasks

The discussion of writing tasks in this section relies on the findings of Hale et al. (1996) to survey the writing requirements in eight comprehensive U.S. universities. Overall the types of writing expected of undergraduate and graduate students do not seem to vary greatly with regard to the rhetorical and discourse patterns they elicit. Most assignments combine several rhetorical tasks (e.g., exposition and analysis in business case studies or history essays).

The most common types of rhetorical formats found in in-class and out-of-class assignments represent (in declining order of frequency):

- **Exposition** (short tasks required largely in introductions and explanations of material or content to follow, and thus it is a component of all assignment types)
- **Cause-effect interpretation** (by far the most prevalent writing task, found in over half of all writing assignments)
- **Classification** of events, facts, and developments according to a generalized theoretical or factual scheme
- **Comparison/contrast** of entities, theories, methods, analyses, and approaches (in short assignments)
- **Analysis** of information/facts (in medium-length assignments)
- **Argumentation** based on facts/research/published literature (in medium-length assignments)

Less common writing tasks include:

- **Expanded definition** (least common in medium-length and out-of-class assignments)
- **Process analysis** in such disciplines as political science, economics, sociology, psychology, accounting, marketing, and management (hardly ever found in out-of-class assignments)
- **Fact-based exemplification** of concepts and theoretical premises and constructs (overall least common in both in-class and out-of-class assignments)
- Not found in any assignments—**narration/description** in the disciplines or English courses

In general, the frequency of rhetorical patterns does not seem to differ greatly among the writing tasks in undergraduate and graduate courses. Specifically, cause-effect essays can be found in over half of all written tasks in in- and out-of-class assignments, with exemplification, process analysis, and definition being comparatively least common.

Exposition rhetorical tasks require writers to explain or clarify the topic/subject. In general terms, exposition is entailed in expressing ideas, opinions, or explanation pertaining to a particular piece of knowledge or fact. For example,

1. *What nonverbal cues communicated the most conflict in the newlywed study? (Psychology) (Epste 1999, p. 291)*
2. *Discuss the various types of accounting information most companies routinely use. (Busine (Zikmund, Middlemist, & Middlemist, 1995, p. 447)*
3. *Which forms of government predominated among the Italian city-states ? In the end, which was most successful? Why? (History) (Perry et al., 2000, p. 322)*

Topic: 248: Teaching Cause and Effect

Cause-effect interpretation tasks deal with establishing causal relationships and are based on cau reasoning. Most assignments of this type include a discussion or an explanation of a cause-effect relations among events or problems, identification of causes or effects, and a presentation of problem solutions in case of problem-solution tasks. Examples of cause-effect interpretation assignments can be:

1. *Pabst Blue Ribbon was a major beer company when I was in college. However, recently it has l market share, and now you hardly even hear about it. What happened at Pabst and why? (Busine (Adapted from Bean, 1996)*
2. *Why does culture arise in the first place? Why is culture a necessary part of all organized li (Sociology) (Charon, 1999, p. 105)*
3. *Why is the Renaissance considered a departure from the Middle Ages and the beginning modernity? (History) (Perry et al., 2000, p. 322)*

Topic: 249: Teaching Classification

Classification of events, facts, and developments assignments involve cognitive tasks in which writ are expected to determine what types of group members share particular features or characteristi Therefore, students are required to classify clusters or groups of objects, events, or situations according their common attributes, create a system to classify objects or events, and list them based on t classification. For example,

1. *In what ways can a company maintain good relations with its union employees without being unfai its nonunion employees? (Business) (Zikmund, Middlemist, & Middlemist, 1995, p. 421)*
2. *What do Elaine Walster and Ellen Berscheid say are the ingredients for love? (Psychology) (Epste 1999, p. 326)*
3. *What was the traditional relationship between the people and their rulers during the Middle Ages? H and why did this relationship begin to change in the sixteenth century and with what results ? (Histo (Perry et al., 2000, p. 376)*

Topic: 250: Teaching Comparison and Contrast

Comparison/contrast tasks expect writers to discuss or examine objects or domains of knowledge identifying their characteristics/properties that make them similar or different. In general, the purpose of su assignments is to identify the specific points that make objects, events, or situations similar and/or different well as explain one in terms of the other. Examples of these assignments can be:

1. *Compare and contrast medieval universities with universities today (History) (Perry et al., 2000, p. 27*
2. *What distinguishes the philosophy of religion from theology ? (Philosophy) (Schoedinger, 2000, p. 22*
3. *Compare the reaction ofOlaudah Equino on first encountering Europeans with that of the Spania encountering Aztecs. (History) (Perry, Peden, &VonLaue, 1999, p. 351)*

Topic: 251: Teaching Analysis

Analysis of information or facts (in medium-length assignments) requires writers to separate a wh into elements or component parts and identify relationships among these parts. Other types of analy assignments include applying theories or interpretive methods to the object of analysis or a particular schoo thought, distinguishing facts from theories, evaluating the validity of stated or unstated assumptions and various types of relationships among events, identifying logical fallacies in arguments, or specifying author's purpose, bias, or point of view. For example:

1. *How does the bourgeoisie gradually undermine its own existence according to Marx? (Philosop (Schoedinger, 2000, p. 215)*
2. *How do the elasticities of supply and demand affect the deadweight loss of a tax ? Why do they ha this effect ? (Economics) (Mankiw, 2001, p. 176)*

2. *What is the business value chain ? Use frozen pizza sold in supermarkets to explain your answer. (Business) (Zikmund, Middlemist, & Middlemist, 1995, p. 17)*

Topic: 253: Teaching Exemplification

Exemplification and illustration largely deals with expanding on theories/concepts/ ideas and providing reasonable amounts of detail to explain a type, class, or group of objects or events by presenting examples. These assignments largely rely on general-to-specific discourse organization flow. For example,

1. *Give at least two examples of what children can learn from playing peek-a-boo. (Psychology) (Epstein, 1999, p. 258)*
2. *What is a simple idea, according to Locke? Give examples. (Philosophy) (Adapted from Schoedinger, 2000, p. 351)*

Lesson 44

Teaching reading and writing in the Pakistani ELT context

Topic: 254: Introduction to Teaching reading and writing in the Pakistani ELT context

The provincial population figures detailed above have helped in deciding the sampling criteria for the schools selected for the present research [see section 6.7.3 below].

Role of English in Pakistan

Urdu is the national language of Pakistan and helps in uniting the general public linguistically in a country whose people speak different regional languages; in fact it functions as a kind of local Lingua Franca in Pakistan (Shamim, 2011). English is recognized as the second language. However, it is spoken by a very small percentage of the population in Pakistan as shown in Table: 1.2 in which English does not even figure among the major languages to be given a separate reference and is instead included in the 'others' category:

Table: 2.2

		Examination	
Private School chains	Private owners	O' Level/Local Matriculation Examination	Urban middle & upper classes
Private Elite institution	Private owners – foreign management	O' Levels & American school diploma	Urban upper class

Categories of Schools in Pakistan

Parallel Systems of Education

There are parallel systems of education in Pakistan – both differing in terms of objectives. The first system prepares the students for the local board examinations referred to as matriculation examination. Both the public and many private sector schools have adopted this system. There has been general confusion about the medium of instruction, with successive governments opting for Urdu or English (in rural Sindh the regional language Sindhi is widely used as the medium of instruction) at whim. The recent governments are promoting English as the medium of instruction [see section 2.2. above]. Irrespective of the approved medium, English is a compulsory subject from middle school upwards. The public sector schools prescribe the provincial textbook board approved textbooks, while for the private sector the school administration selects textbooks from those available locally.

The second system follows the British educational scheme leading to the O' level examination. The medium of instruction is English and generally imported textbooks are prescribed. Some private sector schools especially those in the affluent urban areas and the public elite institutions have adopted this system. However, most of the older established private institutions (that is, founded before 1979) and some relatively newly established schools offer both the local and the British system.

Topic: 256: Integration of Reading Skills in the Pakistani National Curriculum

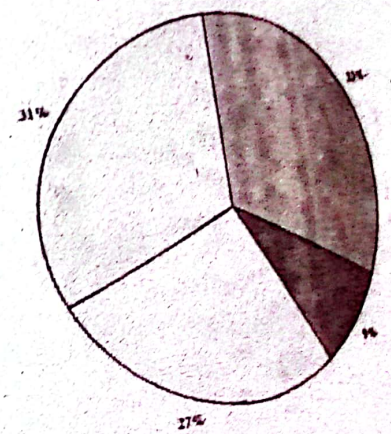
The Public and Private Divide

Identify what constitutes public sector and private sector in the

Sector Wise

As observed from Figure: 2.1, the number of private
ar with the public sector middle institutions (33%) in the sa
chools are flourishing in the urban regions (32%), the
nsignificant (only 5 %). The enrolment situation is similar
he following graph

Figure: 2.2



Sector Wise Enrolment in Middle Scho

In rural localities, the difference between
(33%) and those attending private sector (27%
enrolment in the two types of schools (9%
popular in both urban

words, it requires the ... supposes (at least, in all normal people) the ability to speak and concerned not with teaching speaking and hearing, etc, but speaking it' French, or reading German or hearing Italian. The teacher does not teach language skills from scratch but rather modifies or extends these skills in some perhaps relatively superficial fashion.

We can now take an overview at some of the different possibilities and connections for an effective teaching of the skills to take place in our classroom situations.

Topic: 262: Writing and Other Skills

Writing is not a skill which can be learned in isolation. In the apprentice stage of writing, what the student must learn, apart from the peculiar difficulties of spelling or script, is a counterpart of what has to be learnt for the mastery of listening comprehension, speaking and reading —a nucleus of linguistic knowledge. The activity of writing helps to consolidate the knowledge for use in other areas, since it gives the student practice in manipulating structures and selecting and combining lexical elements.

Written questions based on a reading passage encourage the student to read the text more attentively and discover areas which were misinterpreted on the first reading. Only by hearing and reading a great deal of the language as it is spoken and written by native speakers can language learners acquire that feeling for the appropriate use of language forms and combinations, which is basic to expressive writing.

The most effective writing practice will have a close connection with what is being practiced in relation to other skills. We should be aware, though, that not everybody will reach a tight standard in composition. Interference of the first language explains the unacceptable forms that many produce in the written form, the construction of hybrid phrases without realizing that these are incomprehensible in the context of the new language.

Attempts should be made to encourage the learners to use structures and expressions they have already learned in oral practice and in reading, creating interesting and amusing pieces of expressive writing. By doing so, they' will be using much language material which otherwise would escape from their active memory.

More effective results will be achieved in writing exercises if there is a continual integration of practice

oducing
ocesses in spee

Perception of spoken or written messages is primarily
eaning, moving from what one perceives in the sound sequenc
nsure to knowledge of syntax only when (he meaning is not clear
detected (.4 In production the speaker or writer expresses the i
yntactic system.

Students should not be expected or encouraged to stop wh
ord to insert a native-language gloss between the lines. This hab
hink in a second language. They could increase their vocabula
hey copy words they wish to remember These words should
entences, so that the students are reminded of the context in w
providing written practice from reading input.

Extensive reading fosters vocabulary growth and the acq
may develop personal intuitions about what good writing looks li
writing is probably the best way for a student to become a good
courses, programs and teaching practices whose rationale is ba
relationship between reading and writing.

One of the fundamental principles in second language
second language only if they obtain comprehensible input whic
also apply to the acquisition of writing competence, as Krashen
the fact that reading can serve as un important source of com
contribution to the development of overall proficiency.

The assumption underlying is that writing competence
being aware that they have acquired it, while they are readi
connections between reading and writing. Foong (1988), points
which find that those who get pleasure from reading at all age
of the poor writers seem to report «a lot» of plea
iting ability do 'Flore reading than person
comprehension proces
they describ